

Applied Linguistics

(ENG522)

Virtual University of Pakistan

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INTRODUCING APPLIED LINGUISTICS-I

Outline:

- **Introducing Applied Linguistics (Li Wei, Guy Cook & Allan n Cathy)**
 - What is Language and What is Linguistics?
 - The Need and Scope of Applied Linguistics
 - Linguistics and Applied Linguistics: A Difficult Relationship
 - Applied Linguistics as a Problem-solving Approach
 - Applied Linguistics: Subject to Discipline
 - Doing Applied Linguistics: Methodological Considerations

Topic-001: Introduction to the Course

If you describe yourself as a linguist to other people outside the discipline, chances are that they will ask you, 'How many languages do you speak?' But if you describe yourself as an Applied Linguist, they may well go silent completely, wondering what they should say to you next. If you are lucky, you might get asked, 'Is that how to teach languages?' or 'Is that translation?' These questions are not entirely unreasonable, as Applied Linguistics can mean different things to different people, even among those who would describe themselves as Applied Linguists.

The **International Association of Applied Linguistics (AILA)** proclaims:

Applied Linguistics is an interdisciplinary field of research and practice dealing with practical problems of language and communication that can be identified, analysed or solved by applying available theories, methods or results of Linguistics or by developing new theoretical and methodological frameworks in linguistics to work on these problems.

The AILA definition is both broad in including, potentially, many different areas such as child language acquisition, language and communication disorders, multilingualism, language testing, communication in the workplace, and so on, and narrow in relating Applied Linguistics to linguistics proper.

What is Language and What is Linguistics?

All linguistics work, whatever specific perspective one may adopt, should ultimately have something to say about the question, 'What is this thing called language?' (Nunan, 2013). **Ron Macaulay (2011)** presents 'Seven Ways of Looking at Language':

- language as meaning
- language as sound
- language as form
- language as communication
- language as identity
- language as history

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- language as symbol

These can be summarized in three rather different conceptualizations of language:

1. as a particular representational system based on the biologically rooted language faculty;
2. as complex and historically evolved patterns of structures;
3. as a social practice and a culturally loaded value system.

The different conceptualizations of language lead to very different methodological perspectives which together constitute the field of linguistics today. The following are some of the commonly occurring terms for different branches of linguistics: theoretical linguistics, formal linguistics, descriptive linguistics, historical linguistics, sociolinguistics, psycholinguistics, neurolinguistics, clinical linguistics, cognitive linguistics, forensic linguistics, educational linguistics, computational linguistics, corpus linguistics and geo-linguistics.

To these we can add sub-branches, i.e., phonetics, phonology, morphology, syntax, semantics, pragmatics, dialectology, discourse analysis, critical discourse analysis, stylistics, genre analysis, second language acquisition and language pathology.

Indeed, the list of sub-branches can go on. It may be useful to look at the differences, but also similarities, between these different kinds of linguistics in terms of the relationship between the linguist who does the studying of language and the evidence he or she uses for the study, paying particular attention to how the evidence is gathered and used in the analysis. The schematization of the various approaches helps to highlight the commonalities as well as differences between the various branches and sub-branches of linguistics.

Applied Linguists may apply one specific approach from these to the problems they wish to solve, or be eclectic and use a combination of approaches. Moreover, Applied Linguists have applied theories and models from other disciplines beyond linguistics. Indeed, contemporary Applied Linguists feel free to draw on almost any field of human knowledge, and use ideas from philosophy, education, sociology, feminism, Marxism and media studies, to name a random few. They have, for example, explored psychological models such as declarative/procedural memory and emergentism, mathematical models such as dynamic systems theory or chaos theory, early Soviet theories of child development such as those of Vygotsky, French thinkers such as Foucault and Bourdieu, and so on.

Ben Rampton (1997, p. 14) described Applied Linguistics as ‘an open field of interest in language’, while David Block (2009) called it ‘an amalgam of research interests’.

Topic-002: The Need and Scope of Applied Linguistics

Applied linguistics is a theoretical term that covers interdisciplinary domain in linguistics to solve real-world problems in the use of language in various contexts such as translation, literacy,

language education and teaching, lexicography, and others which belong to the application of language. The scope of applied linguistics can be summarized as follows:

- 1. Language and Teaching:** This scope covers the approaches and methods which are used in teaching second language.
- 2. Language and Society:** This scope is also called sociolinguistics which studies the relationship between the society and language. It answers some questions emerge in the use of language in society.
- 3. Language and Education/Learning:** There are some activities involve in this scope. They are 1st language education, additional language education, clinical linguistics, and language testing.
- 4. Language, Work, and Law:** It covers the studies of workplace communication, language planning, and forensic linguistics.
- 5. Language, Information, and Effect:** The other studies such as literary stylistics, CDA (Critical Discourse Analysis), translation and interpretation, and information design belong to this scope.

While specific employers seek individuals with specific skills for specific jobs, all employers want those with the ability to express themselves clearly, to solve novel problems and to present their solutions in a clear and accessible form. These skills are central to the study of Applied Linguistics. Applied Linguistics training prepares students well for employment in government agencies, non-profit organizations, educational institutions and businesses. In a globalizing world today there is a growing demand for people equipped to analyse language and language practice. Graduates with a background in Applied Linguistics also gain an enhanced understanding of how people learn first, second and foreign languages and of how language is used in the community. This knowledge will be relevant to those who are interested in preparing for careers as language teachers, language education and assessment experts, speech pathologists, interpreters and translators, and a variety of jobs in industry where language and communication are issues of concern.

The following list of job titles comes from various databases of recent graduates who did an Applied Linguistics degree or had Applied Linguistics as a major in their degree. There are, of course, many other professions that are concerned with language and communication that Applied Linguistic graduates can enter.

1. Advertising Executive	2. Administrative Assistant	3. Bilingual Assistant
4. Campaign Coordinator	5. Teacher of English as a Foreign Language	6. Teaching Assistant
7. Fund Raiser	8. Customer Relations Manager	9. Data Analyst
10. Dialect Coach	11. Document Processing Specialist	12. Careers Advisor
13. Editor	14. Educational Consultant	15. Translator/Interpreter
16. Event Manager	17. Community Project Manager	18. Grants Manager
19. Lab Manager	20. Human Resources Administrator	21. News Reporter

22. Marketing Consultant	23. Documentation Training Manager	24. Resources Manager
25. Policy Analyst	26. Electronic Lexicographer	27. Student Advisor
28. Publisher	29. Communication Advisor	30. Technical Copy Editor
31. Research Associate	32. Training and Development Manager	33. Technical Writer
34. Test Designer	35. Volunteer Services Coordinator	36. Web Developer
37. Youth Project Manager		

Topic-003: Linguistics and Applied Linguistics: A Difficult Relationship

Linguistics and applied linguistics a difficult relationship... Linguistics: is the academic discipline concerned with the study of language in general. In some degree is bound to represent an abstract idealization of language. One particularly influential type of idealization is that used in the generative linguistics by Noam Chomsky. The representation of language in the mind (competence) the way in which people use language in everyday life (performance)

Chomsky's linguistics is not the only kind, we also have.... Sociolinguistics attempts to find systematic relationships between social groupings and contexts, and the variable ways in which languages are used.

In Functional linguistics the concern is with language as a means of communication, and how people actually use their language. Corpus linguistics looks for the frequencies and combinations in words that are not usually revealed by intuition.

Applied linguistics is not simply a matter of matching up findings about language with pre-existing problems but of using findings to explore how the perception of these might be changed. The methodology of applied linguistics must refer to findings and theories of linguistics, choosing among the different schools and approaches, and making these relevant to the problem in hand. At the same time, it must investigate and take into account the experience and needs of the people involved in the problem itself. It must then seek to relate to these two perspectives to each other, attempting perhaps, in the process, to reformulate each. Moreover, it must undertake investigation and theorizing of its own.

Conceived of this way, applied linguistics is a quest for common ground. It establishes a reciprocal relationship between experience and expertise, between professional concerns with language problems and linguistics.

Topic-004: Applied Linguistics as a Problem-solving Approach

While most Applied Linguists seem happy with the idea that their discipline is concerned, as AILA proclaims, with ‘practical problems of language and communication’, the term ‘**problem**’ does raise issues of its own. In one sense it means a research question posed in a particular discipline; in another sense it is something that has gone wrong which can be solved.

Calling areas or topics problems fosters the attitude that there is something wrong with them. Applied Linguists have to be clear that they are solving problems within an area of language use, not regarding the area itself as a problem except in the research question sense. Language teaching, for example, is not itself a problem to be solved; it may nevertheless raise problems that Applied Linguists can resolve.

So what problems does Applied Linguistics solve?

If you are worried about your child’s speech, you are more likely to go to a speech therapist than to an Applied Linguist. If your country is torn by civil war between people who use two scripts, you ask for a United Nations Peacekeeping Force. If you are drafting a new law, you go to a constitutional lawyer or a civil servant. The problem-solving successes of Applied Linguistics have included devising orthographies for languages that have no written form and inventing simplified languages for mariners; Applied Linguists have played a part in EU projects on translation and on linguistic diversity. Most successes have, however, had to do with language teaching, such as the syllabuses and methods that swept the world from the 1970s onwards, particularly associated with the Council of Europe.

At a general level we can draw three implications from this:

1. **The Applied Linguist is a Jack of all trades.** Real-world language problems can seldom be resolved by looking at a single aspect of language. Since Applied Linguistics is interdisciplinary, the Applied Linguist is expected to know a little about many areas, not only of language, but also of philosophy, sociology, computer programming, experimental design, and many more. In a sense, Applied Linguists are not only Jacks of all trades but also master of none as they do not require the in-depth knowledge of the specialist but the ability to filter out ideas relevant to their concerns.

An Applied Linguist who only does syntax or Discourse Analysis is an applied syntactician or an applied discourse analyst, not a member of the multidisciplinary Applied Linguistics profession. In other words, multidisciplinary applies not just to the discipline as a whole but also to the individual practitioner.

2. **The Applied Linguist is a go-between, not an enforcer, a servant, not a master.** The problems that Applied Linguistics can deal with are complex and multi-faceted. As consultants to other people, Applied Linguists can contribute their own interpretation and advice. But that is all. The client has to weigh in the balance all the other factors and decide on the solution. Rather than saying, ‘You should follow this way of language teaching’, the Applied Linguist’s advice

is, ‘You could try this way of language teaching and see whether it works for you’. Alternatively, the Applied Linguist should be responding to problems put forward by language teachers, not predetermining what the problems are; the Applied Linguist is there to serve teachers’ needs – a garage mechanic interpreting the customer’s vague idea of what is wrong with their car and putting it right, rather than a car designer.

3. ***Sheer description of any area of language is not Applied Linguistics as such but descriptive linguistics.*** Some areas concerned with the description of language are regarded as Applied Linguistics, others are not. Make a corpus analysis of an area or carry out a Conversation Analysis and you’re doing Applied Linguistics; describe children’s language or vocabulary and it is first language acquisition; make a description of grammar and you are doing syntax. Overall, making a description is not in itself solving a problem, even if it may contribute to the solution.

As this reminds us, language is at the core of human activity. Applied Linguistics needs to take itself seriously as a central discipline in the language sciences, dealing with real problems. Applied Linguistics has the potential to make a difference. It seems important, therefore, to reassert the focus on language in Applied Linguistics. The unique selling point of Applied Linguistics that distinguishes it from the many domains and sub-domains of sociology, economics, politics, law, management and neuroscience is language. At its core it needs a coherent theory of language – whether this comes from a particular branch of linguistics or from some other discipline – a set of rigorous descriptive tools to handle language, and a body of research relevant to language practice.

Topic-005: Applied Linguistics: Subject to Discipline

The role of Applied Linguistics

Applied linguistics is often said to be concerned with solving or at least ameliorating social problems involving language. This tradition of applied linguistics established itself in part as a response to the narrowing of focus in linguistics with the advent in the late 1950s of generative linguistics, and has always maintained a socially accountable role, demonstrated by its central interest in language problems.

For the most part, those who write about applied linguistics accept that the label “applied linguistics” refers to language teaching (in its widest interpretation, therefore including speech therapy, translation and interpreting studies, language planning, etc.). One important source of that enrichment has been the journal *Language Learning*, published from the University of Michigan, providing a chronicle of the development of applied linguistics over the past 50 years (Catford, 1998).

Corder (1973) was well aware that in limiting the coverage of applied linguistics to language teaching he was open to criticism. There are voices suggesting that applied linguistics can fulfill a role wider than language teaching.

Definitions of Applied Linguistics

- “the theoretical and empirical investigation of real-world problems in which language is a central issue” (Brumfit, 1997, p. 93);
- “‘Applied Linguistics’ is using what we know about (a) language, (b) how it is learned, and (c) how it is used, in order to achieve some purpose or solve some problem in the real world” (Schmitt & Celce-Murcia, 2002, p. 1).
- “Traditionally, the primary concerns of Applied Linguistics have been second language acquisition theory, second language pedagogy and the interface between the two” (Schmitt, 2002, p. 2).
- “the focus of applied linguistics is on trying to resolve language-based problems that people encounter in the real world, whether they be learners, teachers, supervisors, academics, lawyers, service providers, those who need social services, test takers, policy developers, dictionary makers, translators, or a whole range of business clients” (Grabe, 2002, p. 9).
- Kaplan suggests that applied linguists “are likely to move toward the analysis of new data, rather than continue to argue new theory” (Kaplan, 2002, p. 514).
- “the term ‘applied linguistics’ raises fundamental difficulties, if for no other reason than that it is difficult to decide on what counts as ‘linguistics’. Given these difficulties within linguistics proper, it is perhaps unfair to expect clean solutions and clear delimitations for defining applied linguistics’ ” (Kaplan & Grabe, 2000, pp. 5–6).

History of Applied Linguistics

Angelis summarizes this history as follows:

- Applied Linguistics in North America does have identifiable roots in linguistics.
- While North American applied linguistics has evolved over time, in its orientation and scope, so has North American linguistics.
- A significant amount of work directed to real-world issues involving language can be attributed to leading North American linguists, although not characterized as applied linguistics.
- Much of what can now be seen as groundbreaking applied linguistics type activity was carried out prior to the formal appearance of applied linguistics or of linguistics as recognized fields of endeavor. (Angelis, 2001)

McNamara (2001) points to a different tradition for Australian applied linguistics. In contrast to both the UK and the USA, Australian applied linguistics took as its target the applied linguistics of modern languages and the languages of immigrants, rather than of English; this alongside the considerable work in the applications of linguistics to the development of teaching materials and writing systems for aboriginal languages. The Australian tradition of applied linguistics shows a surprisingly strong influence of continental Europe and of the USA rather than of Britain.

Davies (2001) argued that the British tradition represented a deliberate attempt to establish a distinctive applied linguistics which was not linguistics (and therefore, by implication, not

Linguistics-Applied). The British Association of Applied Linguistics (BAAL) was formally established in 1967, with the following aims: “the advancement of education by fostering and promoting, by any lawful charitable means, the study of language use, language acquisition and language teaching and the fostering of inter-disciplinary collaboration in this study” (BAAL, 1994). The British tradition is well represented in the Edinburgh Course in Applied Linguistics (Allen & Corder, 1973–5; Allen & Davies, 1977), which did not have as a subtitle “in language teaching.” It was largely taken for granted in the 1960s and 1970s that applied linguistics was about language teaching.

Applied Linguistics as an Ethical Profession

Unlike “strong” professions, such as medicine and law, applied linguistics (and other “weak” professions) lack sanctions. As such they do not control entry nor do they oversee continuing membership or license members to practice as professionals. However, what they can do is create an ethical milieu and in this way exercise informal control. They can establish a professional association, mount training courses leading to degrees and certificates, they can organize internal discussions, hold conferences and annual meetings of the national associations, and provide regular publications (such as *Applied Linguistics*, the *International Review of Applied Linguistics*, the *Annual Review of Applied Linguistics*, the *International Journal of Applied Linguistics*). In these ways, in applied linguistics, consensus can be achieved on what is required to become a professional applied linguist.

What is more, a “weak” profession can develop an ethical framework, such as is to be found in a Code of Conduct or Code of Ethics. Increasingly professions have laid claim to their own professional status by demonstrating their concern to be ethical. Indeed, House claims, “ethics are the rules or standards of right conduct or practice, especially the standards of a profession” (1990, p. 91). BAAL has made clear its own commitment to be ethical by publishing its *Draft Recommendations on Good Practice in Applied Linguistics* (1994). Koehn (1994) considers that what characterizes a profession is that it serves clients rather than makes a customer-type contract. What the professional offers is the service or duty, to be professional, to act professionally, rather than to be successful, since success cannot be guaranteed.

Distinction between Linguistics Applied and Applied Linguistics

Widdowson presents the question in terms of linguistics applied and applied linguistics:

The differences between these modes of intervention is that in the case of linguistics applied the assumption is that the problem can be reformulated by the direct and unilateral application of concepts and terms deriving from linguistic enquiry itself. That is to say, language problems are amenable to linguistics solutions. In the case of applied linguistics, intervention is crucially a matter of mediation . . . applied linguistics . . . has to relate and reconcile different representations of reality, including that of linguistics without excluding others. (Widdowson, 2000, p. 5)

The “linguistics applied” view seems to be derived from the coming together of two traditions:

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1. the European philological tradition which was exported to the USA through scholars such as Roman Jakobson,
 2. the North American tradition of linguistic-anthropological field-work which required the intensive use of non-literate informants and the linguistic description of indigenous languages for the purposes of cultural analysis.

Bloomfield (1933, p. 509) hoped that “The methods and results of linguistics . . . [and] the study of language may help us toward the understanding and control of human affairs.”

Topic-006: Doing Applied Linguistics: Methodological Considerations

If the Applied Linguist is a Jack of all trades, or a go-between across different disciplines and approaches, does Applied Linguistics have a coherent methodology? Does it need one? How would an Applied Linguistics methodology be different from that of, say, formal linguistics, or sociolinguistics and psycholinguistics? To try to answer such questions, it is important to know distinction between method and methodology.

Methods refer to specific techniques of collecting and analysing data. For example, a survey questionnaire is a method, and ethnographic fieldwork is another. Whereas, precisely, **methodology** is the principle or principles that determine how specific methods or tools are deployed and interpreted.

In one sense, **Applied Linguistics is a methodology in itself, because it is concerned with real-world problems in which language plays a central role.** Such a problem-solving approach distinguishes Applied Linguistics from other methodologies where the main concern may be hypothesis testing or theorization. In the meantime, Applied Linguists can employ a wide range of methods in collecting and analyzing data, many of which are commonly used by sociolinguists, psycholinguists, clinical linguists, educational linguists and others.

There are various ways of characterizing different research methodologies. People often think of research methodology in terms of a quantitative versus qualitative dichotomy. **In general terms, quantitative methodology aims to uncover facts and truths in an objective way by delineating patterns or structures, whereas qualitative methodology attempts to interpret meanings of and relationships between objects in context.**

For example, a language class could be regarded as an object for investigation. A quantitative approach might focus on how the class is structured, what the key components of the class are, and what role each component plays in the structuring of the class in terms of frequency and regularity. A qualitative perspective, on the other hand, would be most likely to ask what the definition of a class is in comparison with some other event, how the different components of a class (e.g. participants, topic, setting) are related to each other, and why a particular language class takes place in the way it does.

Quantitative methodology is used a great deal in science disciplines, while qualitative methodology is more common in the humanities and arts. The social sciences often use both: there are social scientists who are more interested in the ‘what’ and ‘how’ questions and adopt a quantitative perspective, while others are more concerned with the ‘how’ and ‘why’ questions and lean towards a qualitative methodology.

Applied Linguistics as a problem-solving approach does, on the surface, seem to lean towards the qualitative perspective, although there are also plenty of Applied Linguists who are interested in facts and figures and therefore adopt a quantitative methodology.

Perhaps a better way to understand the differences in the various methodologies is to look at the objectives of the research. Creswell (2003, p. 6) proposed the classifications listed in Table 1.1, which he terms ‘worldviews in research’. Such a classification helps us to think of research methodologies in more practical ways and avoids the quantitative versus qualitative dichotomy and the potential confusions between methodology and methods.

Table 1.1 Four worldviews used in research



Postpositivism	Constructivism	Advocacy and Participatory	Pragmatism
Determination	Understanding	Political	Consequences of actions
Reductionism	Multiple participant meanings	Empowerment and issue oriented	Problem centred
Empirical observation and measurement	Social and historical construction	Collaborative	Pluralistic
Theory verification	Theory generation	Change oriented	Real-world practice oriented

One can use specific quantitative or qualitative methods and techniques, or a combination of the two, within each of these methodological perspectives. **Whatever methodology you choose to adopt, there are certain steps you need to take in conducting a research project. These typically include:**

1. defining the research question or questions
2. collecting evidence
3. analysing and presenting findings

Defining the research question

Defining the research question is a crucial first step. The question has to be researchable, which means that

1. there are potentially different answers to it
2. there is evidence available for you with which to answer the question

The most common ways of finding research questions are through personal experience or reading other people's work. These two ways also often go hand in hand with each other. Many Applied Linguists come into the field because of professional and personal interests. Most of the people entering Applied Linguistics with professional or personal interests tend to have a better idea of the broad area or topic they want to research into than of a specific, researchable question. For example, they may say that they are interested in researching heritage language schools, or intergenerational communication in multilingual families, or attitudes towards certain languages in a particular community. To make the journey from such broad areas of interests to specific research(able) questions is not always an easy or straightforward process. This is where critical reading of the literature comes in. **A good literature review serves two closely related purposes:**

- 1. to make the reader understand why you are doing what you are doing in the way you are doing it**
- 2. to prepare your own argument**

It should cover the following questions:

- What has been done on the topic or area of interest? Are you interested in exactly the same topic or area, or in something that is similar but different?
- What are the questions asked by the other researchers? Can you ask the questions in a different way? Do you have other questions to ask?
- From what methodological perspective did they ask the questions: postpositivism, constructivism, advocacy and participatory, or pragmatism? What methodology would you use?
- What methods and data did they use in answering the questions? Can you improve on the research design and method? Is there other evidence that you can provide to address the questions?
- How did the researchers interpret their results and what argument did they put forward on the basis of their data analysis? Do you agree with their analysis? Are there other ways of interpreting the data?

In other words, a good, critical review should show that not only have you read extensively the existing work in the field but you have also understood the methodology and arguments, by pointing out the strengths and weaknesses, by comparing the results of different studies and by evaluating them with reference to your own interests. Once you have answered the above questions, you are likely to have a research question or even a set of questions for your own project.

Research design

It is often said that a research project only really begins when one starts to collect evidence or data. Many students are anxious about the amount of data they collect and whether the data they have collected is 'good enough'. To ensure that the data you have is of sufficient quantity and quality, you need to consider carefully a number of design issues. The first and foremost is: 'given this

research question (or theory), what type of evidence is needed to answer the question (or test the theory) *in a convincing way?*’ (de Vaus, 2001, P. 9, original emphasis) Using an analogy, de Vaus compares the role and purpose of research design in a project to knowing what sort of building one is planning (such as an office building, a factory for manufacturing machinery, a school, etc.). You can normally get a sense of what kind of evidence or data is appropriate for the research question by reviewing existing studies – what evidence did other researchers use to support their arguments? More specifically, you can ask the following questions:

1. Is the primary aim of the study to compare two or more individuals, situations, behaviours, or to focus on just one? (etic vs. emic)
2. Is the data collected and analysed in numerical form or not? (quantitative vs. qualitative)
3. Is the data collected under controlled conditions or not? (experimental vs. non-experimental)
4. Is the study conducted over a period of time or at one point in time? (longitudinal vs. non-longitudinal)
5. Does the study involve one single participant, a small group of participants or a large number of participants? (case study vs. group study)

The terms in brackets after each of the above questions are different types of research design.

An **etic** study is often known as a **comparative study**, which involves comparing one individual, or situation, or behaviour, with another. An **emic** study, on the other hand, is one in which researchers try to explore and discover patterns and meanings *in situ*.

The use of numerical data lies behind the difference between **quantitative** and **qualitative** research design. A quantitative study is essentially about explaining phenomena and identifying trends and patterns by collecting and analysing data numerically, while a qualitative design is an umbrella term that covers a variety of methods which focus on the meaning of the phenomenon being investigated and do not involve numerical data.

Experimental studies collect data under controlled conditions. The purpose of the ‘control’ is to keep everything, except for the variables under investigation, as similar or comparable as possible so that the experimental results can be reliably attributed to the changes in variables. In a **non-experimental** design, researchers do not manipulate the conditions. This design is suitable for research questions that aim to explore the phenomena in a more natural manner, such as spontaneous interaction, to find out opinions, attitudes or facts or to assess current conditions or practice.

Longitudinal design refers to studies in which data are collected from a small number of subjects over a period of time, and is suitable for answering research questions that aim to explore changes and development over time or to evaluate the effectiveness of a training programme or the impact of an experience. **Cross-sectional** design, on the other hand, refers to the type of studies in which data is collected at one point in time from a large number of subjects grouped together according

either to age or to other variables such as length of stay in a new country. It can be used to explore the relationship between various variables, for example, the correlation between the degree of appropriateness in use of the speech act by an English-as-a-foreign-language learner and the length of stay in an English-speaking country; or to describe the developmental pattern of a particular feature or skill such as the development of Intercultural Communicative Competence.

Case study design is an in-depth investigation of, usually, a single subject. It can be used to describe the linguistic or communicative behaviour of an individual member of a group, to refute a claim by providing counter-evidence, or alternatively to show what is possible as positive evidence. **Group study** involves a group of individuals instead of one subject. Single case study and group study are very often combined with longitudinal and cross-sectional designs. For example, a case study can be conducted longitudinally, and a group study can be done cross-sectionally.

There are two further types of research that are increasingly popular in Applied Linguistics, namely, **action research** and **critical research**. Action research belongs to the *pragmatist and the advocacy and participatory methodological perspectives* in Creswell's framework. It is a reflective process of problem solving. Some people think of action research as case studies. It is true that most often action research is done on a case-by-case basis. But the key to action research is that it is aimed at improving the way the individuals involved in the research process address issues and solve problems.

Action research can also be undertaken by larger organizations or institutions, assisted or guided by researchers, with the aim of improving their strategies, practices, and knowledge of the environments within which they practise. Kurt Lewin, who is believed to have coined the term *action research*, described it as 'a comparative research on the conditions and effects of various forms of social action and research leading to social action' that uses 'a spiral of steps, each of which is composed of a circle of planning, action, and fact-finding about the result of the action' (1946). Action research has been particularly popular among language teaching professionals who wish to improve their own as well as their organization's professional practice through the reflective research process.

Critical research: It cuts across the constructivist, the advocacy and participatory as well as the pragmatist methodological perspectives. Critical research has two rather different origins and histories, one originating in *literary criticism* and the other in *sociology*. This has led to the rather literal use of 'critical theory' as an umbrella term to describe theoretical critique. Critical research, in the sociological context, is underpinned by a social theory that is oriented toward critiquing and changing society in its totality, in contrast to traditional theories oriented only to understanding or explaining it.

Critical research has been particularly appealing to some Applied Linguists because of the shared interests in language, symbolism, text and meaning. In the 1970s and 1980s, Jürgen Habermas redefined critical social theory as a theory of communication, that is, communicative competence and communicative rationality on the one hand, distorted communication on the other. Applied Linguists who adopt the critical research perspective have focused on the processes of synthesis, production or construction by which the phenomena and objects of human communication, culture and political consciousness come about. This is reflected in much of the discussion on language ecology, language rights and linguistic imperialism, as well as on gender and ethnicity in language learning and language use (e.g. Pennycook, 2001; Sealey and Carter, 2004).

Data collection

The data that Applied Linguists are interested in can be broadly identified in two categories: interactional and non-interactional data.

Interactional data consist of a continuum with elicited conversation and naturally occurring conversation at each end, according to the degree of naturalness. Conversation can be elicited through a range of methods and techniques such as discourse completion tasks, recall protocols, or role play. The key issue for the interaction obtained through elicitation is its comparability to naturally occurring interaction. For naturally occurring conversation, the key issue is how to capture it (using observation sheet vs. audio-visual recording, for example) and how to strike the balance between details and analytical approach (Interactional or Conversation Analysis). In addition to elicited and recorded conversation, conversation data are also available in a number of other sources such as data banks, the Internet and other mass and social media.

The so-called **non-interactional data** are data about language practices rather than samples of language practices themselves. Surveys, questionnaires, interviews, self-reports, standard assessments and laboratory experiments can all be used to collect non-interactional data. They are often used to collect large amounts of information from sizeable populations. With the exception of self-reports, the researcher normally has an expectation of what the responses (i.e. data, findings) will be. They are therefore more often used to test hypotheses or verify existing findings and claims. Some Applied Linguists are also interested in critical analysis of public discourse or media language.

Ethnography is sometimes used as a data collection technique when the researcher is particularly interested in exploring the meaning of a phenomenon. Ethnography is in fact more of a methodology than a method; it is a holistic approach to social phenomena and social practices, including linguistic practices, with specific references to both historical and present contexts. Ethnography requires rich data, often collected through a combination of different means including recordings, interviews and questionnaires. But the key data collection method for ethnography is *in situ* observation. Observation enables the investigator to describe events, actions, behaviours, language use, and so on, in detail and to interpret what has happened in context. During observation, researchers make field notes of what they see in as much detail as possible. There are

different types of observations, depending on the researcher's role and visibility in the event under study.

Researchers can either actively take part in observation and have maximum contact with the people being studied or remain as unobtrusive as possible. The main advantages of ethnographic observation are that it allows the researcher to uncover information previously unknown, to gain an in-depth description, and to capture a series of events and processes over time. The challenges are several: researchers may have biases in selecting what to note down; it is difficult to differentiate describing from interpreting what has happened; documenting an event while observing and participating in activities can be a demanding task. There is a huge amount of published literature on specific techniques and tools for collecting data.

Analysing and presenting findings

Data analysis follows closely from research design. It is advisable to consider how you intend to analyse and present the findings during the design stage of the research process, before you start collecting data.

Quantitative data are most often analysed through statistics and presented in various figures, tables, graphs and diagrams. There are ample guide books for students on how to do quantitative and statistical data analysis. Qualitative data, on the other hand, are usually presented in discursive accounts, with quotations and samples of actual data. For both quantitative and qualitative data analysis, accuracy and accountability are paramount.

We are talking about accountability to the participants, to the situation that has been investigated, to the researcher himself or herself, as well as to the wider audience. The researcher should be truthful and honest not only in describing what they have observed but also in explaining what their ideological stance may be, what they expected to find, and how their identity and relationship with the people they studied impacted on the findings.

If you have collected interactional data, transcription is the key first step towards analysis. There are different techniques of transcribing language in interaction; for example, Conversation Analysis (CA) specifies a set of conventions for sequential analysis. There are also computer software and other new technologies to assist you in transcribing interactional data, including nonverbal communication and multimodality data. However, most people do not follow a specific set of transcription conventions tightly. And most people do not transcribe everything that has been recorded. It could be argued that one cannot transcribe everything after the event has taken place anyway. There are, therefore, certain decisions one has to make in transcribing interactional data: what is to be transcribed and what is to be left out; what gets highlighted or emphasized and how; what should be done to ambiguous elements, for example, when it is not clear who the speaker was, or what was being referred to. As Ochs (1979) remarked over 30 years ago, such decisions in transcription are also theoretical decisions that would affect the way data is interpreted.

Ethical considerations

As Applied Linguistics research often involves human subjects, following ethical considerations are crucial.

Justification: the proposed research will achieve worthwhile objectives and the time and resources needed for the research are justifiable. Participants' welfare and public responsibility are paramount. Where the project may potentially put the participants at risk, either physically or psychologically, care must be taken to ensure that the benefits of the project outweigh the risks. Appropriate support mechanisms need to be provided to minimize any potential risk. Where there is a possible conflict of interest (e.g. the work is to be carried out in the same organization or sponsored by an organization), a case must be made.

Access to participant(s): this includes issues of participants' privacy, the need to reduce invasiveness of the presence of researchers, issues of confidentiality and anonymity, and so on.

Informed consent: when seeking consent, participants need to be fully informed about the aim and nature of the project and any potential risks. They should be made aware of their rights in the project, such as the right to withdraw at any time, the right to refuse to answer any question, the right to ask any question, and so on. With young and school-age children and vulnerable populations such as patients, consent must be sought from their parents, guardians, carers or schools (if the research is carried out on the school premises or with assistance from the school).

Other ethical concerns relevant to studies in Applied Linguistics include:

Participants' language ability: whether participants' language ability is sufficient for them to understand the informed consent form.

Cross-cultural differences in ethics: there may be differences in the ethical considerations between the culture in which the research is carried out and the culture from which participants come. This issue is particularly relevant to studies on Study Abroad and intercultural interactions. It is important to anticipate any potential differences and clarify any misunderstandings.

Most educational institutes have an ethics committee which oversees the ethical approval and a set of ethical approval procedures. Students must check the procedure and seek approval before carrying out data collection. In addition, ethical guidelines are provided by some professional bodies or research journals. For example:

- TESOL Quarterly Research Guidelines are available at: www.tesol.org/.
- British Association for Applied Linguistics (BAAL) has a set of recommendations for good practice in Applied Linguistics student projects at: www.baal.org.uk/.
- American Association for Applied Linguistics (AAAL) has passed a range of resolutions that affirm the commitment to promoting diversity, oppose discrimination on the basis of accented speech, support the use of language analysis in relation to questions of national origin in refugee cases, oppose the labelling of English as the national language in the US, and so on: www.aaal.org/.
- Wray and Bloomer (2006) also provide useful information on the differences between confidentiality and anonymity and on data protection laws.

Outline:

- **Language Development**
 - First Language Acquisition
 - Second and Additional Language Acquisition
 - Language and the Brain
 - The Linguistic Schools of Thought
 - Functionalism

LANGUAGE DEVELOPMENT

Lesson-02

-
- Structuralism
 - Generativism
 - Cognitivism

Language Development

Language, a system of conventional spoken, manual, or written symbols by means of which human beings, as members of a social group and participants in its culture, express themselves. Henry Sweet, an English phonetician and language scholar, stated: “**Language** is the expression of ideas by means of speech-sounds combined into words. Words are combined into sentences, this combination answering to that of ideas into thoughts.” Language development is the process by which children come to understand and communicate language during early childhood.

Topic-007: First Language Acquisition

The acquisition of language starts when children learn their first words, usually at around ten to twelve months of age. However, children show that they have communicational abilities as soon as they are born. At first, children cry to be noticed.

The crying is different depending on whether the child is hungry, tired or in pain.

While an outsider solely hears crying, the child’s parents are often able to distinguish between cries and attend to the child’s need in accordance to that. This is not a linguistic ability but rather a first sign of communication. Infants as young as a few weeks old show the ability to distinguish between the most intricate and accurate sounds, showing that they are ready to adapt any language of the world as their native language (Gleason & Bernstein, 1993). Children lose this ability when they have started to apply the language in their environment as their native language.

Lenneberg (2004, p. 106-107) collected the very first steps of language in children in his article *Language in the Context of Growth and Maturation*. These are the steps that make children ‘ready’ for language.

At around twelve weeks children begin smiling when talked to and the first signs of cooing emerge. At sixteen weeks, children start paying attention to human sounds, turning their heads in the direction of the sound. At the same time, the cooing makes way for chuckling sounds.

A twenty-week-old child begins using consonant sounds but their cooing and chuckling is still very different from the sounds of the language in their environment. It sounds as though children are realizing that they can produce different sounds. The cooing and chuckling gradually take a turn into a more intricate babbling that appears at around six months of age.

The babbling often resembles one-syllable utterances of languages. The babbling stage is essential in a child’s language learning process and children who do not babble usually take a longer time to learn languages (Gleason & Bernstein, 1993).

However, when children who skip the babbling stage acquire language, they are just as fluent as any other speaking child.

At ten months of age children begin to imitate activities and utterances from the people around them but they are usually not very successful in their imitation and they do not show much comprehension of the language spoken around them.

However, they begin showing the ability to differentiate between words heard as if they are trying to find meaning to the language in their environment. The first words that carry understanding and meaning usually appear at around twelve months of age. From this onwards, children learn language more progressively.

They gradually acquire new words into their vocabulary until they reach approximately eighteen months of age. The eighteenth month level seems to mark a turning point in a child's language learning process.

The child seems to be on a spurt and acquires about one word per waking hour until they reach five years of age when they will have a vocabulary of around 2,000 words and grammatical abilities not too different from that of an adult (Jackendoff, 1994).

Grammar Acquisition

The earliest level of a child's language happens between the ages of twelve to eighteen months when they are still acquiring their first words. This stage in the language learning process is often called the holophrastic stage since children only use one word as a way to communicate and there is not much to go on. Despite the 'lack' of language during the holophrastic stage, a grammar begins to emerge in a child's language. There is no syntax since only one word is used to describe the child's meaning but children use this one word as a whole sentence.

Children choose the words they use carefully and use the most informative and descriptive words they can find. For example, words such as down can have more than one or two meaning such as put me down or let's go downstairs etc.

A child enters a two-word stage of language at around eighteen months of age. That happens when a child starts combining words into sentences and beginning to use inflections.

While the two-word stage is yet not very complex grammatically, children have a much better way of being understood than at the holographic stage. Sentences, like 'baby chair' meaning the baby is sitting on the chair or 'doggy bark' meaning the dog is barking, occur and the children show frustration when they are not understood (O'Grady, p. 377).

Children will most likely not have acquired syntactic categories but it is hard to determine whether they have since their utterances are normally very short and targeted.

Comprehension exceeds production considerably at the one- and two-word stages of language. If, for example, a child would sit in front of a screen with two pictures, one of a woman kissing an apple and another of the same woman kissing keys, and the sentence the woman is kissing the keys is uttered the child will linger longer at the picture where the woman kisses keys.

This accounts for simple irreversible sentences. However, an experiment was run to test whether children knew the difference between subjects and objects in reversible sentences like Cookie Monster is tickling Big Bird (O'Grady, 2008).

In order to figure that out the experimenter had to learn whether children learn a 'big rule' or a 'little rule' at each stage. If a child knows the 'big rule', he or she knows that the subject precedes the verb and that the object follows the verb. If, however, the child has only learnt the 'little rule', they make a rule out of the action verb.

The children in the experiment were made watch funny actions like one toy animal pushing another one down a chute (O'Grady, 2008, p. 119). The action, they were told, was called blicking. Then they were asked to 'make Cookie Monster blick Big Bird'.

It turned out that it was not until children became three and half years old that they started to comprehend the difference between the subject and object in reversible sentences.

Children younger than that tended to make Big Bird blick Cookie Monster as much as the other way around. It also became clear that children on the first two levels of language tend to rather make a 'little rule' out of sentences than the 'big rule'. Children begin showing that they have developed grammar into their speech as they enter the telegraphic stage of language. This happens when a child's utterances become longer and more complex, usually around the time they reach two years of age. It is called the telegraphic stage because children will not yet have acquired bound morphemes in their speech, making their utterances resemble telegrams. At this point a child's sentence will involve a phrase structure with a head and a complement. They will utter sentences carrying full meaning like I good boy, What her name? and Me wanna show mommy (O'Grady, p. 378).

The sentences are simple grammatically but are understandable. The child's abilities at syntactic order are remarkably good at the telegraphic stage. Although they do not raise bound morphemes, determiners or even the right verb, they will most likely get the syntactic order correctly.

Children still show greater comprehension than production at the telegraphic stage. For example, they do not use determiners but they will be surprised when their parents leave those words out of their speech or if they speak in a distorted manner. In order to get a better picture of to what extent the comprehension holds, an experiment was run by Katz, Baker and Macnamara to test children's comprehension over production regarding common and proper names (1974, p., 469-473).

The experiment was done with both genders, and the children averaged at 23 months old. The children were asked to play with dolls and blocks. The dolls and blocks were identical in almost every aspect except for the dolls differing in hair color and the blocks in color. Half of the dolls and blocks were given nonsense names (zav for example) and the names were divided into common (a zav) and proper names (Zav). Then the children were asked to pick up either a zav or

Zav (depending on which noun they were experimenting) and do something with it. For example, they were asked to feed Zav, hug a Zav or stack the blocks in this way or another. When the proper name was used for the dolls, the children picked a particular doll with the name Zav about 65% of the time. When it came to choosing a zav however, they usually picked a random doll from the group. The results differed considerably between boys and girls but both genders showed better comprehension to some extent.

The experiment showed that despite children not necessarily using the difference between common and proper nouns in their own speech, they still show some awareness of the difference grammatically.

A child stays at the telegraphic stage for about half a year followed by a time when they constantly acquire more complex grammar into their speech along with a remarkable growth of vocabulary. In a three-year-old child “grammatical complexity of utterances is roughly that of colloquial adult language, although mistakes occur” (Lenneberg, 2004, p. 107) and a five-year-old child’s language resembles that of an adult, with a complex grammar structure and syntax, and a large vocabulary. At later stages, children eventually acquire the ability to use the Merge operation in their language. It can therefore be said that when children can use the ability to merge and have knowledge of generative grammar consisting of transformations, the grammar of language is fully acquired.

Although children still make grammatical mistakes in their speech until they reach around nine or ten years of age, they have language figured out completely long before that time. It is important to note that while all this knowledge is acquired during a remarkably short amount of time, children are constantly exposed to imperfect language and they receive little help from their environment.

Innateness

Chomsky’s claim

Grammar is a mental system that allows people to form and interpret both familiar and novel utterances (O’Grady et al., 2011).

After a child reaches eighteen months of age, a grammar begins to emerge in his or her language. When that happens, the child rapidly acquires most of the grammatical rules and syntactic structure without any help but from the language they are exposed to in their environment. All normal children master their native language and most children have the grammar of an adult’s colloquial language by their fifth birthday. It is certain that children must be exposed to language in order to acquire it but they do not learn language by imitating or from corrections alone.

For example, the language learning process is too complex to be obtained through imitation, and children are also not very successful at imitating sentences that contain novel words or sentences. Children only imitate 5- 40% (depending on each child) of the time when they converse with adults (O’Grady, 2008, p. 167).

Children are not taught language either. Studies show that parents do not often correct children when they make grammatical errors in their speech and they much rather correct their child when it comes to factual errors (O'Grady, 2008).

When the parents decide to correct their child's grammatical mistakes it turns out to be almost impossible and children must acquire the rules of language independent from parental stimuli.

Children are therefore deprived of direct teaching until they start school at the age of five or six and by that time they have become fairly fluent speakers of their native language. Furthermore, studies show that adults all over the world change the way they speak when they speak directly to children. They speak with a higher pitch, they simplify grammar and they reduplicate (Ferguson, 2004, p.183).

Children are exposed to imperfect language from the adults around them and yet they learn language perfectly, independent of intelligence or IQ.

All children manage to learn language themselves and they do so with remarkably little trouble, given the complexity of the system they are learning. A three-year-old child can speak to an adult about nearly any commonplace or day-to-day subject without trouble. Yet, that same child has still not learnt general etiquette or the ability to tie his or her shoes.

It turns out that language involves subconscious knowledge and children might not be aware of all the knowledge they possess when it comes to knowledge of language.

Every child learns language. Children with an immensely low IQ and even children that are way behind in most other aspects of the maturation period usually manage to acquire languages perfectly and often they manage to do that in line with normal children. There are examples of children who cannot draw a circle or build from blocks that master their native tongue the same way and at the same speed as normal children. This clearly shows that it is natural for humans to acquire language and that language is not simply a general capacity based on general intelligence.

With the innateness hypothesis Chomsky came to the conclusion that the only way children can acquire the intricate rules of grammar and syntax, when they are still yet to mature on many other levels, is if they are born with knowledge of the fundamental organizing principles of grammar. He called this knowledge of grammar Universal Grammar. Children use Universal Grammar to get a grasp of the language in their environment and apply it in their native language.

It is based on the idea that all languages have the same ancestor and that the grammars of all natural languages share the basic aspects of grammar, i.e. the basics of syntax (O'Grady et al, 2011).

This is likely to be true, as it is believed that all languages evolved from one parent language and therefore Universal Grammar is what twines the languages of the world together (Putnam, 1967).

By hypothesis it is a priori in some sense and present in children before linguistic experience begins.

The inborn grammar helps making first language acquisition a relatively simple process for children. It helps children figure out the fundamental generative grammar of their native language. Generative grammar represents what one knows when one knows a language. What constitutes knowing a language is made up of the things that are learnt and the general principles that are inborn.

Generative grammar is made up of a set of transformations or syntactic rules that can move an element from one position to another. According to Chomsky, a person knows language fluently when they have reached full comprehension of the generative grammar of their native language. The innateness hypothesis is the hypothesis that children's brains are 'programmed' to learn language. It is important to note that while children seem to have the ability to acquire language easily, adults acquiring a second language find it a much more difficult process.

This makes Universal Grammar available only to children acquiring their first language. In order to apply the inborn 'awareness of language' and experience of language into knowledge that a child can use, there must be some sort of a drive within a child's brain that pushes this comprehension forth.

Chomsky explains this drive as a language faculty or a language acquisition device (LAD). The language faculty is allegedly located within a person's brain and converts experience and inborn knowledge into knowledge of language. It helps children make use of the knowledge they possess.

Ever since Chomsky presented his theory, it has become an influential view among linguists that children are born with prior knowledge of the type of categories, operations and principles that are found in the grammar of a human language (O'Grady et al., 2011, p. 387).

Children, therefore, know that the words in the language they are acquiring will belong to a small set of syntactic categories and that they can be combined in particular ways to create larger phrases, while they have to learn the words they later divide into categories.

Topic-008: Second and Additional Language Acquisition

Second language acquisition and learning is defined as learning and acquisition of a language once the mother tongue or first language acquisition is established.

The additional language, which can be a second language (L2) or a foreign language (FL) is usually defined as a language acquired after the native language(s) (L1s), typically after the age of three. Proficiency in the interlanguage can range from minimal to highly advanced, and in some cases, it can be indistinguishable from the speech produced by native speakers of a similar socio-economic background.

A good learner

In SLA, a puzzling question arises that why and how some learners manage to become indistinguishable from native speakers in the foreign language while others are identified as non-native speakers from the moment they open their mouth, even after spending years in the target language environment.

Interestingly, the parable of the tortoise and the hare also applies to SLA: those who make quick progress early on in the learning process are not always the ones who end up being most proficient in the foreign language.

Is it possible then to draw a profile of the prototypical “good language learner”? This has been attempted by a team of Canadian researchers (Naiman, Fröhlich, Stern & Todesco, 1978) who looked at a group of 72 Canadian high school students learning French as an L2.

The authors looked at “good language learners”, i.e., the participants who had any distinctive psychological profile and scored highest on the Listening Test of French Achievement and an Imitation Test. Naiman and his colleagues found nothing conclusive, but that has not stopped further research in this direction (Griffiths, 2008).

Since the difference between individuals with an apparent talent for learning foreign languages and those who lack such a talent originates in the brain, some researchers have looked to see whether pathological language talent was related to increased growth of particular brain areas (Geschwind & Galaburda, 1985).

The findings of such studies are often disappointing, as no clear and straightforward conclusions can be drawn from the observations.

The fact that the neurological basis for language talent or ability cannot be identified does not alter the fact that some individuals seem to possess higher levels of “ability” (both intelligence and language aptitude) and motivation which together seem to constitute the primary individual difference variables involved in language learning (Gardner, 2006).

Topic-009: Language and the Brain

The objects of study that must be linked in neurolinguistics are language and neural components. Approaches to neurolinguistic studies are the localization of speech relevant areas of the human brain and to find out about the connection how these areas work together.

The human nervous system is composed of the central and the peripheral system.

The peripheral nervous system is responsible for the regulation of vital body functions such as breathing and temperature maintenance, etc.

The central nervous system consists of the brain and the spinal cord.

Most crucial for neurolinguists is the brain itself, or more precisely, the outer surface of the cerebral hemispheres, the cortex.

The center of human speech and language processing has been localized in the cortex.

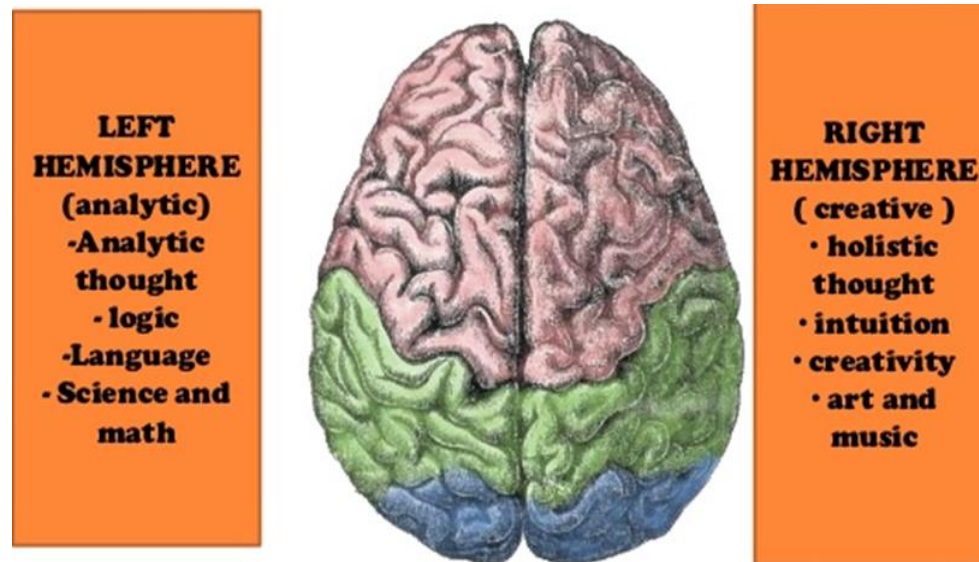
Localization of Language

The human brain is split into two hemispheres. The left hemisphere controls any muscular activity on the right side of the human body and the right hemisphere operates vice versa. But how to localize the representation of brain centers for speech and language?

This search dates back to the early nineteenth century. Some physicians observed that brain injured patients with damage on the left hemisphere often lost speech or linguistic abilities while people

with a lesion on the right side did not lose this ability. From the vantage point of the present, the dominance of the left hemisphere for language is largely uncontroversial.

Recent studies estimate that 97% of the population has language represented in the left hemisphere (Obler and Gjerlow, 28).



How the human brain is able to process and store information, especially language relevant data like the meaning of words and grammatical rules!

The topic is also remarkably interesting for computer scientists and closely related to artificial intelligence topics.

Considering linguistic topics, simulated neural networks are often used to represent grammatical rules in computers. They might even be the key to genuine synthetic speech, both understanding as well as producing.

Topic-010: The Linguistics Schools of Thought

- Functionalism
- Structuralism
- Generativism
- Cognitivism

Functionalism

In linguistics, functionalism can refer to any one of various approaches to the study of grammatical descriptions and processes that consider the purposes to which language is put and the contexts in which language occurs, also called functional linguistics which contrasts with Chomskyan linguistics.

Christopher Butler notes that "there is a strong consensus among functionalists that the linguistic system is not self-contained, and so autonomous from external factors, but is shaped by them" (The Dynamics of Language Use, 2005). For functionalists, the language is first and foremost an

instrument for communication between human beings, and this fact is central in explaining why languages are as they are.

This orientation certainly corresponds to the layperson's view of what language is. Ask any beginner in linguistics, who has not yet been exposed to formal approaches, what a language is, and you are likely to be told that it is something that allows human beings to communicate with one another.

There are many functionalist approaches which have been put forward, and they are often very different from one another. Two prominent ones are Role-and-Reference Grammar (RRG), developed by William Foley and Robert Van Valin, and Systemic Linguistics (SL), developed by Michael Halliday.

RRG approaches linguistic description by asking what communicative purposes need to be served and what grammatical devices are available to serve them.

SL is chiefly interested in examining the structure of a large linguistic unit—a text or a discourse—and it attempts to integrate a great deal of structural information with other information (social information, for example) in the hope of constructing a coherent account of what speakers are doing.

Functionalist approaches have proved fruitful, but they are usually hard to formalize, and they often work with 'patterns,' 'preferences,' 'tendencies,' and 'choices,' in place of the explicit rules preferred by non-functionalist linguists.

Structuralism

Structuralism posits that things cannot be understood outside of the context in which they appear. While at first glance this might seem self-evident, structuralism goes beyond mere historical insight and argues that context creates meaning.

This is a notion that has its roots in structural linguistics. Saussure's insight was that words are arbitrary; they have no direct connection to the thing they refer to. More than that, their meaning is determined by context. Meaning in language is created by difference—the relationship of one word to all the other words around it. There is a certain kind of negativity in all this. We understand things by what they are not.

In his book titled 'Beginning Theory', Peter Barry lays out three principles that Saussure used to develop this idea.

The meaning of words is arbitrary; the connection between the letters that form "DOG" and the actual animal is not inherent in the word itself. Rather, it is something that speakers of English agree on.

The meaning of words is relational and dependent on the meaning of other words. Barry's example uses the words "hut" and "shed." Although they are similar in meaning, if there was no word for "shed," then the meaning of "hut" (or some other word) would change to include and signify a small building used for storage.

Language constitutes our understanding of the world, which is to say that words mediate our ability to know reality. Barry mentions the difference between “terrorists” and “freedom fighters.” Each word has an arbitrary relationship to the actual person being referred to, but the political content of each term frames our understanding of that person.

Another way to think about structural linguistics is to understand Saussure’s terms “langue” and “parole.” “Parole” refers to a particular utterance in a language, and “langue” refers to the entire system of language which that utterance belongs. The utterance only makes sense if you are able to place it in the larger linguistic structure it belongs to.

Structuralism: Methodological Principles

To understand the major methodological principles of structuralism, one must first understand what structuralism is.

Structuralism, as a linguistic theory, is that words "have to be seen in the context of the larger structure they are part of" (Beginning Theory by Peter Barry). This means that a word is only a word because of the words that surround it.

According to Saussure

the meanings we give to words are arbitrary. The physicality, or structure of a word, holds no bearing to its connotation nor denotation. (The only exceptions may be onomatopoeia, however, because even these vary by language, it is not necessarily correct.)

the meanings of words are relational. "No word can be defined in isolation from other words" (Barry). It is necessary to have other words frame a context to understand one word. There are no intrinsic, or fixed meanings in words. If a group of people were asked to think of "dog," some people may mentally conjure a border collie, others a beagle, and others a labrador, etc. While these are all dogs, and would correctly fit under the category of "dog," this word would not accomplish simultaneous thought, or a fixed meaning.

language constitutes our world. Because language exists, thought exists (think 1984 and the removal of words from the dictionary). Because the word "freedom" exists, we understand the concept; however, if no such word existed, the thought would be vague or unclear, at the very least.

Generativism

In 1957 Noam Chomsky published Syntactic Structures, a statement of the principles of transformational generative grammar (TG). This grammar had a profound effect on the study of all languages, including English.

Generativism is ordinarily demonstrated as having developed out of, and in reaction to the earlier influenced school of post Bloomfieldian American descriptivism which is particularly an edition of structuralism.

Generativism is the term used to refer a theory of language which has been developed over the last two decades, by Chomsky and his companions. Generativism not only influenced the branch of linguistics but it became an important discipline in philosophy and psychology of language.

A grammatical model of a language is an attempt to represent systematically and overtly what the native speaker of that language intuitively knows. A model is thus a system of rules that relates patterned sounds to predictable meanings and which reflects a speaker's ability of to make infinite use of finite means.

Generativism describes its concern with the essential and feasible features of human language by means of generative grammar of one type or other. Generative grammar stresses on the biological grounds for acquisition and use of human language, and the universal principles that constrain the characteristics of all languages.

Transformational generative grammarians set themselves the task of creating an explicit model of what an ideal speaker of the language intuitively knows. Their model must assign a structure, therefore, to all the sentences of the language concerned and only to these sentences.

As a first step towards this, Chomsky distinguished between competence (which defines as the ideal speaker-hearer's knowledge of his language) and performance (which is „the actual use of language in concrete situations).

Chomsky assumes that every sentence has an inner hidden deep structure and an outer manifest surface structure. The grammar of English will generate, for each sentence, a deep structure, and will contain rules showing how this deep structure is related to a surface structure. The rules expressing the relation of deep and surface structure are called “grammatical transformations”.

According to Chomsky, language and human cognition develop at the same time.

Language is innate; its characteristics are universal among humankind. This phenomenon is same like child's normal development, in spite of a skill learned by some and not by others, such as operating a computer or riding a horse.

Children must ensure the specific sound meaning combinations and parameter setting used in their surroundings.

According to this theory language is set of syntactic rules which are universal for all humans and implicit the grammars of all human languages. This feature of language termed as Universal Grammar by Chomsky.

Chomsky introduces a term in his research i.e., I-language & E-language. By I-language he means to say that systems are productive, in the sense that they permit to construct and understand the meaning of indefinitely many utterances that have never occurred before in user's experience.

Actually from the supposition that human languages have the characteristic of recursion and this reflects to be logical assumption it says that the set of possible utterances in any language is infinite in number (Chomsky, 1957).

The competence-performance distinction is at very heart of Generativism.

Linguistic competence is the set of rules which speaker has constructed in his mind. The theory of generative grammar can be detected as linguists construct a model for, that part of linguistic competence which is universal and considered to be innate.

This aspect of generativism, with its new interpretation brings the revival of the traditional belief of universal grammar, which has awakened the attention of psychologists and philosophers.

A child, according to Chomsky, is constructing an internalized grammar as; he looks for regularities in the speech he hears going on around him, then make guess as to the rules which underlie the patterns.

His first guess will be a simple one. His second amended hypothesis will be more complex, his third, more elaborates still. Gradually his mental grammar will become more sophisticated. Eventually his internalized rules will cover all the possible utterances of his language.

According to Chomsky, then, a hypothesis-making device, linguistic universals, and (perhaps) an evaluation procedure constitute an innately endowed Language Acquisition Device (LAD). This rich innate schema contrasts strongly with the point of view popularly held earlier in the century that children are born with blank slates as far as language is concerned.

Recently, Chomsky has spoken of “a system of universal grammar with highly restrictive principles that narrowly constrain the category of attainable grammars” (Chomsky, 1980), in which he uses the term “universal grammar” to refer to properties of human, biological endowment”.

Language universals, Chomsky suggests (1965), are of two basic types, substantive and formal. Substantive universals represent the fundamental ‘building blocks’ of language, the substance out of which it is made, while formal universals are concerned with the form or shape of a grammar.

The substantive universals of human language, a child might know instinctively the possible set of sounds to be found in speech. He would automatically reject sneezes, belches, hand-clapping and foot-stamping as possible sounds, but accept B, O, G, L, and so on.

For a long time linguists have assumed that all languages have nouns, verbs and sentence even though the exact definitions of these terms in dispute. And for a long time linguists have been trying to identify a ‘universal phonetic alphabet’ which defines the set of possible signals from which signals of a particular language are drawn (Chomsky, 1972).

To conclude, according to Chomsky, children would ‘know’ in advance how their internalized grammar must be organized. It must have a set of phonological rules for characterizing sound patterns and a set of semantic rules for dealing with meaning, linked by a set of syntactic rules

dealing with word arrangement. Furthermore, children would instinctively realize that in its rules language makes use of structure-dependent operations.

Cognitivism

Cognitivism as a theory of learning studies about the mental process that occurs inside the learner's mind has its own history about its origin and development.

The development of cognitivist theory is famous with the term “cognitive revolution”.

According to asia university (2012:106), cognitive revolution is the name for an intellectual movement of 1950s that began with the cognitive sciences.

Cognitivism: History

It began in the modern context of greater interdisciplinary communication and research. Although cognitive psychology emerged in the late 1950s and began to take over as the dominant theory of learning. It wasn't until the late 1970s that cognitive science began to have its influence on instructional design (Mergel,1998).

It can be inferred that the development of cognitivism happened in the 1950s as the dominant theory of learning, but, unfortunately, the impact of it in the language learning occurred in 1970s. One of the real impacts is its influence on the instructional design. In this case, the development of cognitive theory in psychology is a response to behaviorism.

Cognitivism replaced behaviorism—the theory of language learning which talks about observable behavior and does not give any importance to the internal mental processes (the key concept of cognitivism).

Cognitivism: Development

Factors that influenced the development of Cognitivism

According to Jordan, Carlite & Stack (2008: 36-37), four factors influenced the development of cognitivism:

- The development of experimental psychology
- Transfer of interest from external observable behaviors to internal brain process
- The inadequacy of computer
- an interest in artificial intelligence

Cognitivism involves the study of mental processes such as sensation, perception, attention, encoding, and memory that behaviorists were reluctant to study because cognition occurs inside the” black box” of the brain (Jordan, Carlite & Stack, 2008:36).

Cognitivism: Principles

Sensation: how the stimuli derived from external stimuli is registered in senses before being sent for further processing.

Perception: the process to interpret and make sense something which can be seen through our sense.

Attention: stresses in the concentrating to one thing, that the most importance than the others. It is important to determine the conscious awareness.

Encoding: the way to encode the information can be done through organizing and then converting it in the form of schema. Encoding of information in the form of experience can be conducted through two ways: bottom up and top down.

Memory: the ability to keep and remind the information in our mind. It consists of sensory memory, short term memory, long term memory, and sensory.

The strengths of problem based learning are:

- focuses on the meaningfulness not the facts
- improves the students' initiative, learning achievement etc.

The weakness of cognitivism is the learners learn the way to finish the task, but it is not a good way. The strength is the students are trained to do the task in the same way thus, develops the students with consistency behavior (Schuman,1996 in Mergel, 1998).

A language teacher who wants to apply cognitivism in his or her classroom must consider the strengths and weaknesses of the paradigm.

Lesson-03

TEACHING AND LEARNING LANGUAGE: APPROACHES, METHODS AND PRACTICES-I

Outline:

- **Teaching and Learning Language: Approaches, Methods and Practices**
 - Descriptive Linguistics
 - Transformational-Generative Grammar
 - Traditional Prescriptive Grammar
 - Description versus Prescription: An Applied Linguistics Perspective

Topic-011: Descriptive Linguistics

A Long History of Language Description: The earliest known attempts to describe a language in a systematic way originated in ancient northwestern India, where the desire for a faithful transmission of the sacred scriptures known as the Vedas brought about the need to describe Sanskrit. The best known member of that grammatical tradition, commonly dated 5th century BCE, is Pāṇini—arguably the first descriptive linguist. Similar grammatical traditions were later established in other civilizations and gave birth to the first grammars of Greek, Latin, Tamil, Chinese, Hebrew, and Arabic. Due to the dominance of Latin in medieval Europe, most modern languages had to wait until the Renaissance to be described for the first time—for example, Spanish in 1492, French in 1532, and English in 1586—whether in the form of grammars or lexicons. At the same time, the languages spoken in the newly discovered Americas also became objects of description—often as a result of missionaries’ religious agendas. Nahuatl, the language of the Aztecs, had its first grammar written in 1547 and Quechua, the language of the Inca Empire, in 1560.

As more and more languages of the world were explored and as the new discipline of linguistics started to develop in the mid-19th century—following the groundbreaking work of Alexander von Humboldt and the Brothers Grimm—a new approach to language description became necessary.

Descriptive Linguistics

Descriptive linguistics (henceforth DL) is the scientific endeavor to systematically describe the languages of the world in their diversity, based on the empirical observation of regular patterns in natural speech.

In the 20th century the structural or descriptive linguistics school emerged. It dealt with languages at particular points in time (synchronic) rather than throughout their historical development (diachronic). The father of modern structural linguistics was Ferdinand de Saussure, who believed in language as a systematic structure serving as a link between thought and sound; he thought of language sounds as a series of linguistic signs that are purely arbitrary, as can be seen in the linguistic signs or words for horse: German Pferd, Turkish at, French cheval, and Russian lošad'.

In America, a structural approach was continued through the efforts of Franz Boas and Edward Sapir, who worked primarily with Native American languages, and Leonard Bloomfield, whose methodology required that nonlinguistic criteria must not enter a structural description. Rigorous procedures for determining language structure were developed by Kenneth Pike, Bernard Bloch, Charles Hockett, and others.

The **core principle** of DL is that each language constitutes an autonomous system, which must be described in its own terms. Modern descriptive linguists carry out detailed empirical surveys on a language. After collecting language samples from speakers, they analyze the data so as to identify the components of the system and the principles that underlie its organization.

Through its commitment to the empirical description of speakers' actual practices and to the diversity of languages as creations of linguistic communities, DL is closely allied with the social sciences.

The research agenda of DL can be contrasted with a number of related yet distinct approaches to language. Anthropological linguistics and sociolinguistics study, each in its own way, the interaction between cultural or social factors and language use; by contrast, DL focuses on the structural properties of the languages themselves.

Historical linguistics studies the diachronic processes of language change, whereas DL focuses on the synchronic forms taken by a particular language at a given point in its development. The endeavor to compare individual languages, and the search for potential universals, is known as linguistic typology.

DL may be understood as the preliminary step in the typological effort, the stage during which the facts of each individual language are established, before comparison can take place.

These subdisciplines of linguistics differ in their scientific goals, yet they essentially share with DL the same fundamental principles, including the emphasis on a bottom-up, empirical approach: All these approaches are complementary components of a single scientific agenda.

By contrast, the principles of DL conflict more frontally with those of formal linguistics. Formal linguists—particularly proponents of generative grammar—claim that the facts of language are best explained by resorting to an apparatus of theoretical principles that are defined a priori, independently of the facts of particular languages. Descriptivists reject these aprioristic assumptions and require that all results be derived from the observable structures of the languages themselves.

Topic-012: Transformational Generative Grammar

The revolutionary attempt of Chomsky in linguistics actually started from his concept of Transformational Generative Grammar (TGG.) or simply Transformational Grammar (TG).

Transformational grammar is an approach to the use of grammar in communications that involves a logical and analytical process to fully grasp the meaning behind the words selected. From this perspective, it goes beyond the process of structural grammar, which tends to focus on the proper construction of sentences as the device for communication. Along with sentence structure, this type of grammar will also attempt to explore the thought behind the words.

TG, transformational grammar attempts to apply logic to the task of looking into the deeper meanings of the structure of sentences, and to analyze both the surface and the underlying intent of the words used. This means employing more than just a visual approach to the words that make up the sentence. Syntax also plays a role in the logical process of transformational grammar, as

will context. To a degree, this type of grammar calls upon most of the tools of linguistics in an attempt to fully analyze the spoken or written word.

One of the main proponents of the idea of transformational grammar was Noam Chomsky. During the middle of the 20th century, Chomsky worked to develop a logical approach to analyzing the syntax of structural grammar within the setting of the English language. As a result of his efforts, Chomsky developed and promoted the concept of grammar as being a broader theory regarding language structure, rather than simply defining a method for developing the structure for sentences. This approach had been inherent for centuries in the broader concepts of universal grammar. But due to the work of Chomsky, linguists and grammarians began to understand transformational grammar as a discipline all its own.

Why the so-called grammar is said to be transformational and generative?

This concept is best explained by considering the two key words in the string. There are: transformational and generative. It is necessary to do this because our knowledge of their meanings will go a long way to provide a quick and through understanding of the concept. Transformational is an adjectival derivation from the noun transformation. Transformation in this sense refers to a device or a process of changing the form of one linguistic structure to another. For instance, active sentence can be changed to a passive one while a simple declarative can be changed into a question through the use of transformation (Lamidi 2000). Generative on the other hand is an adjective formed from the verb 'generate'.

And according to Tomori (1997), generate in this sense (as used in generative grammar) does not mean to produce. It means to describe. When it is said that a rule generates a sentence, what this means in transformational grammar is that, a particular rule or set of rules describe how a particular linguistic element or string is formed. Combining the explanations on the above two key words, therefore, transformational generative grammar implies the type of grammar that seeks to explain the rules governing structural changes and the formation of utterances. "An attempt to make explicit that knowledge which is implicit in the native speaker of any language" (Tomori 1997).

Traditional grammar refers to the type of grammar study done prior to the beginnings of modern linguistics. Grammar, in this traditional sense, is the study of the structure and formation of words and sentences, usually without much reference to sound and meaning. In the more modern linguistic sense, grammar is the study of the entire interrelated system of structures— sounds, words, meanings, sentences—within a language.

According to Chomsky the syntactic description of sentences has two aspects: viz., Surface Structure and Deep Structure. Surface structure is the aspect of description that determines the phonetic form of sentences; while deep structure determines semantic interpretation. The rules that express the relation of Deep and Surface structures in sentences are called Grammatical Transformation and hence the terms Transformational Generative Grammar. But what is a

grammar? "A Grammar", Chomsky says "consists of syntactic rules that generate certain underlying abstract objects, and rules of semantic and phonological interpretation that assign an intrinsic meaning and an ideal phonetic representation to these abstract object." A grammar of a language is supposed to be a set of rules operating upon certain data for certain purposes.

Topic-013: Traditional Prescriptive Grammar

Traditional grammar refers to the type of grammar study done prior to the beginnings of modern linguistics. Grammar, in this traditional sense, is the study of the structure and formation of words and sentences, usually without much reference to sound and meaning.

Traditional grammar can be traced back over 2,000 years and includes grammars from the classical period of Greece, India, and Rome; the Middle Ages; the Renaissance; the eighteenth and nineteenth century; and more modern times. The grammars created in this tradition reflect the prescriptive view that one dialect or variety of a language is to be valued more highly than others and should be the norm for all speakers of the language.

Traditional grammars include prescriptive rules that are to be followed and proscriptive rules of usage to be avoided. 'When describing an emotion, use of an English word descended from Latin is preferred over an Anglo-Saxon word' is an example of a prescriptive rule, and 'Never split an infinitive' is an example of a proscriptive rule.

The analytical study of language began around 500 BC in Greece and India. The work of Greek scholar Dionysius Thrax is the model for all grammars of European languages that follow. His *He grammátike tékhne* (c. 100 BC; The Art of Letters) was the first widely recognized text to provide a curriculum for learning proper Greek. His lessons included an introduction to the alphabet, lessons on how to join syllables together properly, and instruction in the appreciation of word arrangement (syntax). To Thrax, grammar was the technical knowledge necessary to produce the prestige language of poets, orators, and writers.

Around the same time, the Roman scholar Marcus Terentius Varro produced the 25 volumes of his *De lingua latina* (c. 100, About the Latin Language). Varro contrasted Latin with Greek, changed Greek grammatical terms into Latin, and formed his grammar of Latin by adapting Greek rules.

Other Latin grammars, influenced by the works of Thrax and Varro, were produced in the Middle Ages. Aelius Donatus published *Ars Grammatica* (c. fourth century, Art of Letters), and Donat Priscianus Caesariensis (Priscian) wrote *Institutiones grammaticae* (c. sixth century, Grammatical Foundations), which is the only complete surviving Latin grammar.

As printing became more widely available in the Renaissance, European grammarians began the mass production of grammars of their languages by mirroring the Latin grammars of Varro, Donatus, and that the grammatical descriptions of Latin could be routinely applied to their

own languages; this perception, however, was not accurate and resulted in many artificial prescriptive and proscriptive rules. Many of these false assumptions still carry over to attitudes about English today.

Continuing with this tradition, grammarians in the eighteenth century studied English, along with many other European languages, by using the prescriptive approach in traditional grammar; during this time alone, over 270 grammars of English were published. During most of the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries, grammar was viewed as the art or science of correct language in both speech and writing. By pointing out common mistakes in usage, these early grammarians created grammars and dictionaries to help settle usage arguments, and to encourage the improvement of English.

One of the most influential grammars of the eighteenth century was Lindley Murray's English grammar (1794), which was updated in new editions for decades. Murray's rules were taught for many years throughout school systems in England and the United States and helped to create modern attitudes about the existence of a correct or standard variety of English. Murray's grammar represents a practice that continued to develop throughout the nineteenth century and was still dominant in the 1960s when linguistics began to focus more on generative and transformational grammar due to Noam Chomsky's groundbreaking and influential ideas.

Even though linguists today view traditional grammar as an unscientific way to study language and grammar, many of the basic Latin-based notions of grammar can still be found in all levels of the classroom and in textbooks and usage guides available to educators and the public. Traditional grammar books usually provide lists of grammatical terms, definitions of those terms, and advice on using so-called 'standard' grammar, including suggested correct usage of punctuation, spelling, and word choice. This advice is usually based on the prescriptive rules of prestige varieties of English, varieties often only able to be used by those in power either economically or politically.

Linguists, along with English faculty, would rather have students study language with a descriptive approach that includes the analysis of real samples of a mixture of English dialect varieties, not just the prescribed, and sometimes inconsistent, prestige forms. Linguists or teachers using a descriptive approach say that it allows students to investigate language on a deeper level, enabling students to see the system at work, instead of teaching them isolated prescriptive and proscriptive rules based on Latin, a dead language no longer in flux as English constantly is.

Linguists also believe that the rules of traditional grammar are inadequate because many of the rules are oversimplified, inconsistent, or not consistently conformed to. The grammars of classical Greece and Rome were based on the best orators or poets of the day. However, the best poets or speakers of our day are lauded for their poetic use of language that breaks prescriptive rules. For example, a traditional grammar rule of modern English, often found in usage guides and student handbooks, forbids the use of fragment sentences like 'The train running up the hill.'

However, E.E. Cummings or Maya Angelou could use this sentence for poetic effect without question. Many teachers themselves want to be trained in traditional grammar, even though its inconsistencies may not help them when they have to explain grammatical points to their students.

The National Council for Accreditation of Teacher Education (NCATE) requires that teachers in training take linguistics or language courses to teach them to examine the differences between traditional grammar and more modern grammars. However, many English teachers view traditional grammar as necessary and newer grammars as little help to them. And even though more modern types of grammatical analysis exist, many students, future teachers, and the general public still believe grammar means the traditional Latin-based grammar of old.

Topic-014: Description versus Prescription: An Applied Linguistic Perspective

Linguistics takes a descriptive approach to language: it tries to explain things as they actually are, not as we wish them to be. When we study language descriptively, we try to find the unconscious rules that people follow when they say things like sentence (1). The schoolbook approach to language is typically prescriptive. It tries to tell you how you *should* speak and write.

Notice that there is a place for both description and prescription in language study. For example, when adults learn a foreign language, they typically want someone to tell them how to speak, in other words to prescribe a particular set of rules to follow, and expect a teacher or book to set forth those rules. But how do teachers know what rules to prescribe? At some point in time, someone had to describe the language and infer those rules. Prescription, in other words, can only occur after the language has been described, and good prescription depends on adequate description. We obviously don't want to be teaching people the wrong things about language.

In an ideal world, descriptive and prescriptive approaches to language would follow this harmonious relationship: linguists would describe the rules of a language, and pedagogues would use those descriptions to make textbooks to teach language learners. In the real world, however, practitioners of the two approaches often separate themselves into hostile camps. Prescriptivists accuse descriptivists of being anarchists who want to do away with all rules of language. Descriptivists accuse prescriptivists of uninformed bigotry. With each side posting guards at the ramparts to repel the enemy, both tend to ignore the work and concerns of the other. Grammar textbooks used in K-12 education often neglect the findings of linguistics and instead copy outdated, factually incorrect material from older textbooks. For their part, linguists frequently treat *prescriptivism* as a bad word but fail (with some honorable exceptions) to show how their abstract theorizing is relevant to language teaching.

The conflicts between prescriptivism and descriptivism originate in a difference in focus: scientific study versus teaching. But that difference hardly explains why the two groups are so hostile. Other disciplines don't have a similar divide. High school physics teachers don't scorn

the abstruse theorizing of university professors in quantum mechanics or string theory, even if those theories are far beyond the level of high school physics. They take it for granted that there is continuity between the basic—and simplified—principles taught in introductory classes and the work that cutting-edge research scientists perform. Why is the study of language different?

One reason may be the emotional investment we all have in language. Language is more than a neutral medium for transmitting a message. It has washed over us like a river continually since birth. We use it constantly. It shapes who we are. Think back to your earliest memories. Can you ever remember a time when you were without language? Identity and language twine about each other so tightly that they are impossible to separate. Children of immigrant families, for example, often associate the language of their home with warmth and strong personal connections, with the deepest, private sense of who they are, in contrast to the formal public language of school and the outside world.

Language serves as a symbol of group identity. With the words we use and the way we pronounce them, we send signals to others—conscious and unconscious—about where we come from and how we see ourselves. Children, and adults for that matter, will adopt slang terms to show that they are hip, part of the in crowd. Some people view English as the unifying force of America. According to this perspective, the major thread holding a diverse society together is language. Those who stress this point emphasize the need for immigrants to master English, and sometimes insist that English should be the only language used in public life in the United States.

You don't have to accept this conclusion yourself to see that the choice of language involves deep questions of who we are and how we envision our relationship with society at large. For that reason, pronouncements about language can provoke strong reactions. When someone tells us that the way we use or understand language is inadequate, it's only natural to bristle. A challenge to our language can be tantamount to a challenge to our inner selves. So when disagreements arise over how we use language, the emotional stakes are higher.

Over the years, we have developed a strong intuitive sense of what language is. Most of us probably find ourselves much more detached from questions such as, "How did the universe begin?" or "What happens if you travel at the speed of light?" If our assumptions about physics are wrong, we don't take it personally.

Lesson-04

TEACHING AND LEARNING LANGUAGE: APPROACHES, METHODS AND PRACTICES-II

Outline:

- Teaching of Communication Skills (Listening, Speaking, Reading, Writing)
- Approaches, Methods and Practices
 - Grammar Translation Method
 - Direct Method
 - The Audio Lingual Method
 - Communicative Language Teaching
 - The Natural Approach
 - Eclectic Approach
 - Total physical Response

Topic-015:Teaching of Communication Skills

Academics at Cambridge University created a framework for describing good communication skills in different contexts. It divides these skills into four distinct but interlinked strands:

- *Physical*: How a speaker uses their body language, facial expressions, and voice.
- *Linguistic*: The speaker's use of language, including their understanding of formality and rhetorical devices.
- *Cognitive*: The content of what a speaker says and their ability to build on, challenge, question, and summarize others' ideas.
- *Social and emotional*: How well a speaker listens, includes others, and responds to their audience.

Teaching of Language Skills (Listening, Speaking, Reading, Writing)

Listening

Listening is a language modality. It is one of the four skills of a language i.e. listening, speaking, reading and writing. It involves an active involvement of an individual. Listening involves a sender, a message and a receiver. It is the psychological process of receiving, attending to constructing meaning from and responding to spoken and/or nonverbal messages. **Listening comprises of some key components, they are:**

- **discriminating** between sounds
- **recognizing** words and **understanding** their meaning
- **identifying** grammatical groupings of words,
- **identifying** expressions and sets of utterances that act to create meaning,
- **connecting** linguistic cues to non-linguistic and paralinguistic cues,
- **using background knowledge** to predict and to confirm meaning and
- **recalling** important words and ideas.

The position of listening in second or foreign language programs has undergone a substantial change in recent years (Richards, 2005). The most fundamental change is in understanding of the role of listening in L2 acquisition. Listening had been considered a passive skill and its main purpose was to extract meaning from texts; however, listening is now also considered a skill that can support the growth of other aspects of language knowledge, such as speaking or reading speed (Chang & Millett, 2015). Some empirical studies have also shown that linguistic elements can be acquired through listening (Vidal, 2011; van Zeeland & Schmitt, 2013). This change is important because to acquire a language, a learner normally learns both written and spoken forms unless the language has only one form, with some dialects. If a learner knows one language form, s/he may not learn the language as efficiently as one who knows both forms because reading the written form and listening to the spoken form are equally important input channels and they can work complementarily. More importantly, students spend more time on listening than reading, speaking or writing.

Approaches to Listening Practice

A number of listening difficulties have been revealed by researchers and many suggestions have been made to improve listening instruction efficiency; however, simply relying on teachers' instruction in the classroom is not sufficient to improve one's **listening competence**. Therefore, teachers should give their students guidance on doing listening practice outside class. **Three approaches: narrow listening, repeated listening, and reading while listening, are suggested for developing this competence in listening.**

Narrow Listening

Narrow listening originates from narrow reading, and has been found to be helpful for language acquisition (Krashen, 1981). **Narrow listening means that learners focus on one topic, e.g., weather or sports, or one author, like Conan Doyle or Agatha Christie, and do a great deal of listening in the area they choose.** This approach is suitable for learners across all proficiencies and is definitely interesting for the L2 learner because the learners themselves choose the topics. In 1996, Krashen provided some guidelines for doing narrow listening; however, over the years, advancing technology has made this learning approach much easier than previously.

Repeated Listening

Repeated listening also derives from an L1 source, repeated reading. Repeated reading is one of the most common methods for developing reading fluency. It was developed by Samuels (1979) as a pedagogical application to use with L1 readers who have reading difficulties. **The theory underlying repeated reading is to make word decoding more efficient through repeatedly practicing the same text.** It is assumed that if much attention is paid to decoding word meanings, then little time is left for comprehending text meaning. Repeated reading is used as a means to assist unskilled readers to practice a very basic skill (word recognition) and help them move from the non-accurate to the accurate stage and eventually to the automatic stage (Samuels, 1979). By the same token, if a listener listens to a text many times, then she or he may require very little time for word recognition, so more time can be allotted to comprehending the message.

Simultaneous Reading and Listening

Simultaneous reading and listening is also termed "reading while listening" if the focus is on listening. Reading and listening at the same time can help beginner learners to develop awareness of form-meaning relationships and word recognition skills. However, it has to be noted that the post-listening phase in a listening lesson also involves reading while listening, but their purposes are different. **Reading while listening at the post-listening stage is to confirm or clarify what one hears during the listening stage.** Reading while listening after class is to enjoy reading and listening to all sorts of materials. Some empirical studies have also found that reading while listening improves students' comprehension (Chang, 2009; Chang & Millett, 2014).

Speaking

Taking the pedagogical landscape for speaking instruction into consideration, a comprehensive and holistic approach which integrates the combined strengths of direct and indirect instruction with the power of learners' metacognition is proposed. This approach is further proposed by recent research findings on pedagogical processes that can scaffold the development of L2 speaking. So, the construct of speaking highlights pedagogical procedures that can contribute positively to speaking performance and the implications of such understandings suggest pedagogical principles that can enhance current practices to facilitate second language speaking development in and outside the language classroom.

Understanding the speaking skill a good speaker is the person who speaks L2 confidently and fluently with grammatical correctness. In some learning contexts, a person may be considered a good speaker if he or she sounds like a native-speaker countries of UK or USA. Some people may say that a good speaker is someone who is able to influence others with his or her words. While 'good' speaking may seem a self-evident phenomenon, the construct of speaking is simple. Let us examine L2 speaking by discussing the concept of speaking competence and the processes involved in speech production. There are research highlights that offer pedagogical procedures for enhancing L2 learners' speaking performance.

Speaking Competence

Speaking involves dynamic interactions of mental, articulatory and social processes. To express a message, speakers need to decide what to say and use their linguistic knowledge to construct utterances and encode messages in sounds and sound patterns which can be recognised and understood by their listeners. They also need to consider the context of interaction and engage their listeners in socially appropriate ways through various linguistic choices and forms. For example, speakers may choose to use certain vocabulary or register when speaking with people with whom they have shared knowledge and experience. Speaking is also influenced by varied cognitive and affective factors, such as the ability to process speech quickly and feelings of anxiety. It is instructive to examine a description of L2 oral communication by Johnson (1981) that is still relevant today.

Enabling Skills

An important characteristic of competence is the ability to produce utterances that are grammatically accurate. Accuracy alone, however, is insufficient; competent speakers need to use language for myriads functions to achieve a range of communication goals. They use various sub skills that enable them to navigate the social elements at work in any interaction. So what is said should not only be cleared but should be appropriate to the context and acceptable to their listeners. They need to determine what type and amount of information is needed, as well as effective ways to express their meaning, organize their speech and articulate the sounds that accompany their speech intelligibly.

Pronunciation Skills

The articulatory and phonological skills enable speakers to produce sounds at the segmental and suprasegmental levels. At the segmental level, learners need to articulate discrete sounds such as vowels, consonants and diphthongs, and clusters of these sounds through movement with and inside of their mouths to produce intelligible sounds through the articulatory tract. The suprasegmental level concerns overall sound patterns of utterances or parts of an utterance and are realized mainly but not exclusively through prominence (stress of selected syllables in key words) and tones (pitch movements in selected key words).

Speech Function Skills

There are basic language functions that learners need to show, for example, inform, accept, decline, request, explain and describe. Individual learners' functional repertoire will depend largely on their contexts of interaction and the purposes for which speech can fulfil. Compared to young learners, adult learners in academic or professional situations would need to convey more complex functions such as negotiate, advise and argue.

Interaction Management Skills

Some speech functions are directly related to the ability to manage an interaction or regulate the flow of conversations. Just as children learning their first language need to learn how to initiate and sustain face-to-face interactions, language learners need to develop skills to do so in another language. These include but are not limited to initiating an interaction or conversation, taking turns, giving turns, asking for clarification, changing topics and closing an interaction.

Discourse Organization Skills

Most spoken interactions occur in the contexts where participants have equal or similar opportunities to talk. Very often, however, language learners may have longer turns and are required to produce extended pieces of discourse, for example, when giving a presentation, explaining or describing procedures and narrating an event or a story. They will therefore need skills to construct these spoken texts in ways that are consistent with the sociocultural conventions for the respective genres in the language being learnt.

Communication Strategies

Communication strategies are special techniques that learners need to employ during oral communication. They can have a social function for enhancing interaction or a psycholinguistic function that compensates inadequate vocabulary and other language-related problems (Nakatani and Goh 2007). Given the constraints of time and inadequate language mastery, learners also often need to employ communication strategies to keep the conversation going or to prevent flagging (Dörnyei, 1995).

Florez (1999) highlights/sums up these skills underlying speaking:

- using grammar structures accurately;
- assessing characteristics of the target audience, including shared knowledge, status and power relations, or differences in perspectives;
- selecting vocabulary that is understandable and appropriate for the audience, the topic being discussed, and the setting in which the speech act occurs;
- applying strategies to enhance comprehensibility, such as emphasizing key words, rephrasing, or checking for listener's comprehension;
- paying attention to the success of the interaction and adjusting components of speech such as vocabulary, rate of speech, and complexity of grammar structures to maximize listener's comprehension and involvement.

Reading

Reading is a commonly offered in many second and foreign language curricula for different age groups, yet it is not a skill easily acquired by the learners (Nuttall, 1996). Keeping in mind the significance of reading and viewing in real life and in the curriculum for assisting the development of other language skills (speaking, listening, vocabulary, and writing), teachers' instruction is crucial for students' success. In traditional reading lessons, teachers seldom consider blending reading into viewing and viewing into reading to make the lesson dynamic and interactive.

Classroom Activities

Top-Down and Bottom-Up Models

Reading can be regarded as a process where the centrality of meaning is almost axiomatic (Goodman, 1996), or as a process where the primacy of decoding is emphasized (Samuels, 2004; Stanovich, 2000). Viewing can also be theorized in a similar fashion. The former is known as taking a 'top-down' approach, where the meaning-driven or reader-driven nature is explicit. As Goodman (1996) states, reading is 'a psycholinguistic guessing game,' where much of the meaning resides in the reader, who needs to interpret the text to derive it. He argues that readers' top-down processing is essential to successful reading, and that in many instances, reading involves readers' existing schematic knowledge. Such a view is also widely shared among L2 researchers on bilingual readers because there are non-decoding factors that contribute to reading success (Yorio, 1971; Zhang, Gu, and Hu, 2008).

Interactive Models

In his 'interactive-compensatory model' Stanovich (2000) argues that, although top-down processing is necessary, bottom-up processes play a significant role in reading, especially for beginning readers. In fact, both processes are very important in learning how to read. He points the reason why poor readers do not guess as accurately as skilled readers. The skilled readers possess accurate and automatic perceptual abilities in word recognition that they do not usually

need to guess; whereas poor readers usually guess, and their guessing is frequently short circuited by their limited linguistic proficiency. Following this line of explication, one can see clearly that learning to read becomes a matter of developing highly accurate decoding skills. This means that there is a ‘short-circuit’ effect for L2 learners whose linguistic proficiency is too low to make efficient reading activity (Yorio, 1971). Interactive models of reading in their broad sense have also been advocated for L2 reading instruction (Carrell, 1988) despite controversies over their practicality and their technical nature that detaches them from practical applications.

Teaching Reading in the Classroom

Many useful strategies have been informed by researches and successfully used in the reading classroom (Grabe 2009). Some of them are more useful in the pre-reading stage; some are more relevant to the during-reading stage; and others are more suitable for post-reading stage. Teachers are encouraged to organize their teaching by engaging students to approach texts with reference to this non-exhaustive list of strategies of teaching reading.

Writing

Writing is a complex, multifaceted, and purposeful act of communication that is accomplished in a variety of environments, under various constraints of time, and with a variety of language resources and technological tools.

In order to teach writing effectively, teachers must be explicitly aware of the skills and processes involved. This view treats writing as a profession, a qualification to be attained with discipline and hard work, rather than an innate ability or subconscious habit. Indeed, “even in one’s native language, learning to write is something like learning a second language. No one is born with writing proficiency. Everyone learns to write at school (Leki, 1992). If students want to write well, they need to learn the skills explicitly and adopt deliberate strategies to enhance their writing competence. There are some basic skills for writing competence. First we will discuss the non-linear process of academic writing that teachers can introduce to students in writing classrooms to raise their awareness then explain the practical methods for enhancing students’ writing performance in second language classes.

Writing Competence

Writing competence is composing an effective piece of written work to fulfill a specific purpose. For example, when writing an entertaining and engaging story, students adopt a narrative style and rhetorical moves in order to fulfill the requirements of that genre. If students get aware of the importance of the purpose, audience, and context of the writing, they can employ the following academic discourse skills to achieve effective implementation.

Writing competencies are scored as follows:

BASIC denotes partial mastery of prerequisite knowledge and skills that are fundamental for proficient work at a given grade.

PROFICIENT represents solid academic performance. Students reaching this level have demonstrated competency over challenging subject matter.

ADVANCED represents superior performance.

Pedagogical Principles of the Socio-Cognitive Approach to Academic Writing

(a) Teachers need to explain the purpose of writing to the students

- Make sure students understand that establishing the macro rhetorical goal and purposes of writing is an essential part of the writing process.
- Ensure that students recognize the functions of academic writing. After that, they may begin to appreciate its importance in writing.
- Plan activities that require students to identify the purpose of writing at the modelling, joint construction, and independent writing stages.

(b) Writing lessons would address the knowledge-transformation approach to writing

- Teach the knowledge-transformation approach to writing with a focus of establishing the macro-rhetorical goal of the essay.
- Explicitly teach students the thinking processes in planning, organizing, writing, and revising the essay using the knowledge-transformation approach to writing.
- Create class activities that raise students' awareness of the differences between the information-focused approach and the knowledge- transformation approach to writing.

(c) Second language writers' writing performance can be enhanced by understanding coherence in a broader sense

- Teach the features of a coherent text at a discourse level and highlight the differences in meaning between meta-discourse markers and cohesive devices in writing.
- Encourage students to self-edit their texts by reading aloud and self-evaluating their writing using a coherence checklist.
- Plan peer review activities, focusing on the development of coherence in writing. Peer reviewers can also comment on the macro-rhetorical goal of their peer's essays.

(d) Writing is a complex activity

- Teach students that writing is a non-linear process involving many stages, not limited to conceptualizing, formulating, reading and revising.
- Recognize that students will encounter difficulties during the writing processes such as 'setting the macro rhetorical goal,' 'establishing writer identity,' and 'considering the reader.'
- Plan group activities that heighten students' awareness of the nature of writing.

Topic-016: Approaches, Methods and Practices

Approach

It refers to theories about the nature of language and language learning and teaching that serves as the source of principles, methods and practice in LT. It is the level in which a whole theory and its beliefs are reflected regarding a language and its learning. It is a much wider concept than a method and technique. It is the source of the principles and practices of language teaching. It describes how people acquire and their knowledge of the language and makes statements about the conditions which will promote successful language learning. It offers a model of language competence. An approach describes how language is used and how its constituent parts interlock.

Method

It is considered the practical realization of an approach. It is understood as a group of procedures, a system that clearly explains how to teach a language (syllabus organization -contents & and skills to be taught-, roles of teachers and learners, kinds of materials to use). It is understood as a group of procedures, a system that clearly explains how to teach a language (contents and skills to be taught). The method is based on a specific approach. The approach is axiomatic whereas the method is procedural.

When a method has fixed procedures, informed by clearly articulated approach, it is easy to describe. However, if a method takes procedures and techniques from a wide variety of sources, that is that they are used in other methods or are mentioned by other beliefs, it will be very hard to continue describing it as a method.

Practices

Practices or techniques are the specific strategies that we use in the classroom. These are the tools to be employed in the classroom and must be coherent with the teaching method and therefore, must be in harmony with the approach. Techniques or practices can be method specific as well as general.

GRAMMAR TRANSLATION METHOD

Methods and approaches may differ in their theoretical background, their focus and goals, views on teacher and learner roles, typical techniques and forms of interaction, attitude to errors and use of mother tongue, role of instructional materials, etc. Each of them has its own strengths, weaknesses, opportunities and threats (SWOT).

Goals and Strengths of Grammar Translation Method

There are two main goals to grammar–translation classes. One is to develop students' reading ability to a level where they can read literature in the target language. The other is to develop students' general mental discipline.

The users of foreign language wanted simply to note things of their interest in the literature of foreign languages. Therefore, this method focuses on reading and writing and has developed techniques which facilitate more or less the learning of reading and writing only.

Strengths of Grammar Translation Method include:

- Forming good academic knowledge of the target language
- Training grammar accuracy
- Developing students' memory

Weaknesses of Grammar Translation Method

- Grammar–translation classes are usually conducted in the students' native language.
- Grammar rules are learned deductively.
- Students learn grammar rules by rote.
- Then practice the rules by doing grammar drills and translating sentences to and from the target language.
- As a result, speaking and listening are overlooked.
- More attention is paid to the form of the sentences being translated than to their content.
- Tests often consist of the translation of classical texts.
- There is no usual listening or speaking practice, and very little attention is placed on pronunciation.
- There is usually no practice in communicative activities.
- Communicative aspects of the language are ignored.
- The skill exercised is reading, and then only in the context of translation.
- The result of this approach is usually an inability on the part of the student to use language for communication.

Weakness of GTM lies in:

- the lack of using language for communicative purposes
- lack of development of communicative skills
- little, if any, experience of speaking and listening

THE DIRECT METHOD

By the end of the 19th century, the GTM as a method had failed to meet the requirements of time and society and the reaction to the failure was the creation of the Direct Method, which more stressed the ability to use rather than to analyze language as the goal of language instruction.

Aims of the Direct Method

- DMT aims to build a direct way into the world of the target language making a relation between experience and language, word and idea, thought and expression, and rule and performance.
- It intends for students to learn how to communicate in the target language.
- DMT believes that learners should experience the new language in the same way as he/she experienced his/her mother tongue without considering the existence of his/her mother tongue.

So DMT believes in:

-
- No translation
 - Concepts are to be taught by means of objects or contexts.
 - Oral training helps in reading and writing, listening and speaking simultaneously.
 - Grammar is to be taught indirectly.

Ways to achieve all this includes the following:

- Question/answer exercises – the teacher asks questions of any type and the student answers.
- Dictation – the teacher chooses a grade-appropriate passage and reads it aloud.
- Reading aloud – the students take turn reading sections of a passage, play or a dialogue aloud.
- Self-correction – when a student makes a mistake, the teacher offers him/her a second chance by giving a choice.
- Conversation practice – the students are given an opportunity to ask questions to the other students.
- Paragraph writing – the students are asked to write a passage in their own words.

Strengths and Weaknesses of the Direct Method

Practical goals and immersion into foreign environment, together with focus on speaking and listening practice are the major strengths of the Direct Method. The greatest weaknesses are connected with an underestimated role of reading and writing and counterproductive prohibition of using mother tongue.

In the Direct method, there is a:

- Wide use of authentic materials.
- Presenting language items in dialogues rather than in isolation.
- Introducing natural order of skills presentation: listening, speaking, reading, and writing.
- Both speech and listening comprehensions are taught.
- Correct pronunciation and grammar are emphasized.
- Students are taught from inception to ask questions as well as to answer them.

As far as Weaknesses of the method are concerned, they include:

- Underestimated role of reading and writing.
- Counterproductive prohibition of using mother tongue.
- Overestimated role of mechanical drilling where meaning is often irrelevant.
- Lack of flexibility.

Direct Method and Pakistani Context

The direct method was an answer to the dissatisfaction with the older grammar translation method, which teaches students grammar and vocabulary through direct translations and thus focuses on the written language. However, in Pakistan, GMT is still widely used. The Direct Method is used in a very restricted sense. However, we need to consider the nature and degree of practices in

different streams of education in Pakistan so the case of the use of DTM is different in public sector and private sector.

As far as the future use or way forward is concerned, possibilities of using Direct Method are there, but there is a need for proper teacher training in this regard.

AUDIO-LINGUAL METHOD

The emergence of the Audiolingual Method resulted from the increased attention given to foreign language teaching in the United States toward the end of the 1950s. The need for a radical change and rethinking of foreign language teaching methodology (most of which was still linked to the Reading Method) was prompted by the launch of the first Russian satellite in 1957.

Learner roles

Learners are viewed as organisms that can be directed by skilled training techniques to produce correct responses. In accordance with behaviorist learning theory, teaching focuses on the external manifestations of learning rather than on the internal processes. Learners play a reactive role by responding to stimuli, and thus have little control over the content, pace, or style of learning. They are not encouraged to initiate interaction, because this may lead to mistakes. The fact that in the early stages learners do not always understand the meaning of what they are repeating is not perceived as a drawback, for by listening to the teacher, imitating accurately, and responding to and performing controlled tasks, they are learning a new form of verbal behavior.

Teacher's role

In Audiolingualism, as in Situational Language Teaching, the teacher's role is central and active; it is a teacher-dominated method. The teacher models the target language, controls the direction and pace of learning, and monitors and corrects the learners' performance. The teacher must keep the learners attentive by varying drills and tasks and choosing relevant situations to practice structures. Language learning is seen to result from active verbal interaction between the teacher and the learners. Brooks argues that the teacher must be trained to do the following:

- Introduce, sustain, and harmonize the learning of the four skills in this order:
- Hearing, speaking, reading and writing.
- Use - and not use - English in the language classroom.
- Model the various types of language behavior that the student is to learn. Teach spoken language in dialogue form.
- Direct choral response by all or parts of the class.
- Teach the use of structure through pattern practice.
- Guide the student in choosing and learning vocabulary.
- Show how words relate to meaning in the target language. Get the individual student to talk.
- Reward trials by the student in such a way that learning is reinforced. Teach a short story and other literary forms.

The role of instructional materials

Instructional materials in the Audiolingual Method assist the teacher to develop language mastery in the learner. They are primarily teacher-oriented. A student textbook is often not used in the elementary phase of a course where students are primarily listening, repeating, and responding. At this stage in learning, exposure to the printed word may not be considered desirable, because it distracts attention from the aural input. The teacher, however, will have access to a teacher's book that contains the structured sequence of lessons to be followed and the dialogues, drills, and other practice activities. When textbooks and printed materials are introduced to the student, they provide the texts of dialogues and cues needed for drills and exercises.

COMMUNICATIVE LANGUAGE TEACHING

The notional/functional syllabus, as it was known, provided a new way of exploiting the situational dialogue inherited from the past by indicating that formal and functional properties can after all be integrated. Thus began a language teaching movement which later became known as communicative method or communicative approach or simply communicative language teaching. It should be kept in mind that communicative language teaching is not a monolithic entity; different teachers and teacher educators offered different interpretations of the method within a set of broadly accepted theoretical principles, so much so that it makes sense to talk about not one but several communicative methods. In what follows, we will look at, in detail, the theoretical principles and classroom procedures associated with communicative language teaching, treating it as a prototypical example of a learner centered pedagogy.

Classroom Procedures in Communicative Language Teaching Approach

The content specifications of learner-centered pedagogy are a clear and qualitative extension of those pertaining to language-centered pedagogy, an extension that can make a huge difference in the instructional design.

But from a classroom procedural point of view, there is no fundamental difference between language-centered pedagogy and learner-centered pedagogy. The rationale behind this rather brisk observation will become apparent as we take a closer look at the input modifications and interactional activities recommended by learner-centered pedagogists.

Input Modifications

Unlike the language-centered pedagogist, who adopted an almost exclusive form-based approach to input modifications, learner-centered pedagogists pursued a form- and meaning-based approach. Recognizing that successful communication entails more than structures, they attempted to connect form and meaning. In a sense, this connection is indeed the underlying practice of any method of language teaching for, as Brumfit and Johnson (1979) correctly pointed out, no teacher introduces “shall” and “will” (for example) without relating recourse to the concepts of countableness and uncountableness. (p. 1)

What learner-centered pedagogists did, and did successfully, was to make this connection explicit at the levels of syllabus design, textbook production, and classroom input and interaction. Notice how, for example, the mini curriculum cited (section 6.1.4) focuses on the communicative function of “apologizing,” while at the same time, identifying grammatical structures and vocabulary items needed to perform that function.

Interactional Activities

To operationalize their input modifications in the classroom, learner-centered pedagogists followed the same presentation–practice–production sequence popularized by language-centered pedagogists but with one important distinction: Whereas the language-centered pedagogists presented and helped learners practice and produce grammatical items, learner-centered pedagogists presented and helped learners practice and produce grammatical as well as notional/functional categories of language. It must, however, be acknowledged that learner-centered pedagogists came out with a wide variety of innovative classroom procedures such as pair work, group work, role-play, simulation games, scenarios and debates that ensured a communicative flavor to their interactional activities.

Pooling Information to Solve a Problem

Learner A has a train timetable showing the times of trains from X to Y. Learner B has a timetable of trains from Y to Z. For example:

Learner A’s information:

Newtown dep. : 11.34 13.31 15.18 16.45

Shrewsbury arr. : 12.22 14.18 16.08 18.25

Learner B’s information:

Shrewsbury dep. : 13.02 15.41 16.39 18.46

Swansea arr. : 17.02 19.19 20.37 22.32

Together, the learners must work out the quickest possible journey from Newtown to Swansea. Again, of course, it is important that they should not be able to see each other’s information. (Littlewood, 1981, pp. 34–35)

These two examples illustrate functional communication activities. The idea behind them is that “the teacher structures the situation so that learners have to overcome an information gap or solve a problem. Both the stimulus for communication and the yardstick for success are thus contained within the situation itself: learners must work towards a definite solution or decision” (Littlewood, 1981, p. 22). The activities are intended to help the learner find the language necessary to convey an intended message effectively in a specific context. The two sample activities show how two learners in a paired-activity are required to interact with each other, ask questions, seek information, and pool the information together in order to carry out the activities successfully.

NATURAL APPROACH

The natural approach developed by Tracy Terrell and supported by Stephen Krashen is a language teaching approach which claims that language learning is a reproduction of the way humans naturally acquire their native language. The approach adheres to a communicative approach to language teaching and rejects earlier methods such as the audiolingual method and the situational language teaching approach which Krashen and Terrell (1983) believe are not based on “actual theories of language acquisition but theories of the structure of language.”

Objectives

The Natural Approach "is for beginners and is designed to help them become intermediates." It has the expectation that students will be able to function adequately in the target situation. They will understand the speaker of the target language (perhaps with requests for clarification), and will be able to convey (in a non-insulting manner) their requests and ideas. They need not know every word in a particular semantic domain, nor is it necessary that the syntax and vocabulary be flawless, but their production does need to be understood. They should be able to make the meaning clear but not necessarily be accurate in all details of grammar. (Krashen and Terrell 1983: 71) However, since the Natural Approach is offered as a general set of principles applicable to a wide variety of situations, as in Communicative Language Teaching, specific objectives depend on learner needs and the skill (reading, writing, listening, or speaking) and level being taught. Krashen and Terrell believe that it is important to communicate to learners what they can expect of a course as well as what they should not expect. They offer as an example, a possible goal and non-goal statement for a beginning Natural Approach Spanish class:

After 100-150 hours of Natural Approach Spanish, you will be able to: "get around" in Spanish; you will be able to communicate with a monolingual native speaker of Spanish without difficulty; read most ordinary texts in Spanish with some use of a dictionary; know enough Spanish to continue to improve on your own.

After 100-150 hours of Natural Approach Spanish you will not be able to: pass for a native speaker; use Spanish as easily as you use English; understand native speakers when they talk to each other (you will probably not be able to eavesdrop successfully); use Spanish on the telephone with great comfort; participate easily in a conversation with several other native speakers on unfamiliar topics. (Krashen and Terrell 1983: 74)

The syllabus

Krashen and Terrell (1983) approach course organization from two points of view. First, they list some typical goals for language courses and suggest which of these goals are the ones at which the Natural Approach aims. They list such goals under four areas:

1. Basic personal communication skills: oral (e.g., listening to announcements in public places)
2. Basic personal communication skills: written (e.g., reading and writing personal letters)
3. Academic learning skills: oral (e.g., listening to a lecture)
4. Academic learning skills: written (e.g., taking notes in class).

Of these, they note that the Natural Approach is primarily "designed to develop basic communication skills - both oral and written" (1983: 67). They then observe that communication goals "may be expressed in terms of situations, functions and topics" and proceed to order four pages of topics and situations "which are likely to be most useful to beginning students" (1983: 67). The functions are not specified or suggested but are felt to derive naturally from the topics and situations. This approach to syllabus design would appear to derive to some extent from threshold level specifications.

The second point of view holds that "the purpose of a language course will vary according to the needs of the students and their particular interests" (Krashen and Terrell (1983: 65): The goals of a Natural Approach class are based on an assessment of student needs. We determine the situations in which they will use the target language and the sort of topics they will have to communicate the information about. In setting communication goals, we do not expect the students at the end of a particular course to have acquired a certain group of structures or forms. Instead, we expect them to deal with a particular set of topics in a given situation. We do not organize the activities of the class about a grammatical syllabus. (Krashen and Terrell 1983: 71) From this point of view; it is difficult to specify communicative goals that necessarily fit the needs of all students. Thus, any list of topics and situations must be understood as syllabus suggestions rather than as specifications.

Types of Learning and Teaching Activities

From the beginning of a class taught according to the Natural Approach, emphasis is on presenting comprehensible input in the target language. Teacher talk focuses on objects in the classroom and on the content of pictures, as with the Direct Method. To minimize stress, learners are not required to say anything until they feel ready, but they are expected to respond to teacher commands and questions in other ways.

When learners are ready to begin talking in the new language, the teacher provides comprehensible language and simple response opportunities. The teacher talks slowly and distinctly, asking questions and eliciting one-word answers. There is a gradual progression from Yes/No questions, through either-or questions, to questions that students can answer using words they have heard the teacher use. Students are not expected to use a word actively until they have heard it many times. Charts, pictures, advertisements, and other realia serve as the focal point for questions, and when the students' competence permits, talk moves to class members. "Acquisition activities" - those that focus on meaningful communication rather than language form - are emphasized. Pair or group work may be employed, followed by whole-class discussion led by the teacher.

Role of Learners, Teachers and Materials in the Natural Approach

Learner roles

There is a basic assumption in the Natural Approach that learners should not try to learn a language in the usual sense. The extent to which they can lose themselves in activities involving

meaningful communication will determine the amount and kind of acquisition they will experience and the fluency they will ultimately demonstrate. The language acquirer is seen as a processor of comprehensible input. The acquirer is challenged by input that is slightly beyond his or her current level of competence and is able to assign meaning to this input through active use of context and extralinguistic information.

Learners' roles are seen to change according to their stage of linguistic development. Central to these changing roles are learner decisions on when to speak, what to speak about, and what linguistic expressions to use in speaking.

In the pre-production stage, students "participate in the language activity without having to respond in the target language" (Krashen and Terrell 1983: 76). For example, students can act out physical commands; identify student colleagues from teacher description, point to pictures, and so forth. In the early-production stage, students respond to either-or questions, use single words and short phrases, fill in charts, and use fixed conversational patterns (e.g., How are you? What's your name?).

In the speech-emergent phase, students involve themselves in role play and games, contribute personal information and opinions, and participate in group problem solving. **Learners have four kinds of responsibilities in the Natural Approach classroom:**

1. Provide information about their specific goals so that acquisition activities can focus on the topics and situations most relevant to their needs.
2. Take an active role in ensuring comprehensible input. They should learn and use conversational management techniques to regulate input.
3. Decide when to start producing speech and when to upgrade it.
4. Where learning exercises (i.e., grammar study) are to be a part of the program, decide with the teacher the relative amount of time to be devoted to them and perhaps even complete and correct them independently.

Learners are expected to participate in communication activities with other learners. Although communication activities are seen to provide naturalistic practice and to create a sense of camaraderie, which lowers the affective filter, they may fail to provide learners with well-formed and comprehensible input at the $I + 1$ level. Krashen and Terrell warn of these shortcomings but do not suggest means for their amelioration.

Teacher roles

The Natural Approach demands a much more center-stage role for the teacher than do many contemporary communicative methods. Second, the Natural Approach teacher creates a classroom atmosphere that is interesting, friendly, and in which there is a low affective filter for learning. This is achieved in part, through such Natural Approach techniques as not demanding speech from the students before they are ready for it, not correcting student errors, and providing subject matter of high interest to students.

Finally, the teacher must choose and orchestrate a rich mix of classroom activities, involving a variety of group sizes, content, and contexts. The teacher is seen as responsible for

collecting materials and designing their use. These materials, according to Krashen and Terrell, are based not just on teacher perceptions but on elicited student needs and interests. As with other non-orthodox teaching systems, the Natural Approach teacher has a particular responsibility to communicate clearly and compellingly to students the assumptions, organization, and expectations of the method, since in many cases these will violate student views of what language learning and teaching are supposed to be.

The Role of Instructional Materials

The primary aim of materials is to promote comprehension and communication. Pictures and other visual aids are essential, because they supply the content for communication. They facilitate the acquisition of a large vocabulary within the classroom. Other recommended materials include schedules, brochures, advertisements, maps, and books at levels appropriate to the students, if a reading component is included in the course. Games, in general, are seen as useful classroom materials, since "games by their very nature, focus the students on what it is they are doing and use the language as a tool for reaching the goal rather than as a goal in itself" (Terrell 1982: 121). The selection, reproduction, and collection of materials place a considerable burden on the Natural Approach teacher. Since Krashen and Terrell suggest a syllabus of topics and situations, it is likely that at some point collections of materials to supplement teacher presentations will be published, built around the "syllabus" of topics and situations recommended by the Natural Approach.

ECLECTIC APPROACH

The eclectic approach is the label given to a teacher's use of techniques and activities from a range of language teaching approaches and methodologies. The teacher decides what methodology or approach to use depending on the aims of the lesson and the learners in the group. Eclectic approach for teaching foreign language is commendable when circumstances do not allow for the adoption of a single method. Learners of foreign languages nowadays are prepared to invest less time than before in learning a foreign language. However, they expect to become sufficiently competent in that language in order to be able to perform well under particular circumstances. It is neither a teaching tool for the teacher nor a learning method for the learners. It is a whole way of doing things such as listening coordinated speaking with subsidiary elements like pronunciation and form of the language.

The eclectic method provides a third option for teachers because it fuses elements from traditional and cognitive methods to deliver on the strengths of both. It includes content integration, knowledge construction, prejudice reduction, equity pedagogy, and empowerment of competitive aptitudes. To accommodate these changes, teachers need a new way of thinking. The concept of bilingual knowledge learning has evolved towards a vision based more on management and creation rather than one based on learning only. Still, how to apply them to bilingual learning is a new concept and continually inspires teachers to move forward. Teachers should help children learn by thinking about controlling, and effectively using their own mental process. Cognitive

learning helps children process new information by taking advantage of knowledge and attitudes that children already have. Under the principles of cognitive theory, knowledge that makes sense and has significance to children is more meaningful than inert knowledge and knowledge learned by rote. Knowledge to solve problems and to use skills in situations like those they are likely to encounter in real life or in other senses in which teachers expect learning to transfer to.

Teaching a foreign language must be simple for both teacher and learner and must be within the capabilities of all teachers. Also, the teacher must feel that pupils are progressing satisfactorily. It must bring about a balance between the spoken and written word. It must overcome the conflict between fluency and accuracy. It must increase the rate and amount of learning which takes place in the classroom. Testing must be part of the method, and not separate entity. It must reflect the linguistic habits the child has already acquired by learning his/ her mother tongue and their ability to assimilate a new language. Since our aim is to have our learners master the foreign language, no matter what approach we adopt. We should adopt an approach which makes our teachers master the foreign language in listening, speaking, reading and writing with understanding. Such approach is not only structural or only functional but co-joins both. Each approach has advantages as well as disadvantages. The use of eclecticism does not mean to mix up different approaches randomly. There must have some philosophical backgrounds and some systematic relation among different activities. Usually it is recommended to mix structural approaches with communicative use of language. The kind of eclecticism we tried to implement here is a mixture of traditional reading based approach and some conversational practice for students. Language is based on structures which are used to convey meanings, which perform functions. We see language learning as combined process of structural and communicative activities.

The eclectic theory of language was advocated during the year 1990's and because important for the educational theory of language learning. It is popular because it has the impact of good results without much pressure on the learner. The advantage of this theory is learners have clear vision what they are learning. Multiple tasks, high interaction, lively learning, objective correlative, and fast results are the salient features of this method. Some learners go by their own ways of communicating strategy, they will become more confident in writing but most often they fail in speaking. The purpose of advocating elective method is to connect life experiences to the ideas presented in learning of the language. The types of learning activities teachers select are often directly related to their experiences in the real world.

Language must be put together and learnt concurrently. The spoken language allows one to locate the appropriate way to get a particular objective. The importance of introducing cultural product is as crucial to such learning of the language as capturing and enhancing knowledge or expressing one's feelings. The problem of speaking ranges from creating a story which has to anticipate events. Elective way of speaking is a wonderful way of achieving objective of learning. Teachers of English need to focus on the special teaching techniques. There are many methods of teaching English out of which Eclectic way of teaching include positive objectives of known methods and principles of Eclectic method. Eclectic method is a popular method these days because students are heterogeneous and versatile level intelligent in the classroom. However, some

teachers are very sensitive of using various methods; they find particular method as comfortable using in the classroom without taking much trouble. Teacher ought to use all the principles of language teaching including cognition and linguistic objectives. A technique of teaching through electric ways is a rich combination of multiple activities. The salient features of approach include the low level grammar and oriental context of culture texts which may not bring out whole linguistic competence of the students if they are to be trained for global market leaders. If teacher does not pay attention to the need of respective student, the whole teaching practice is useless.

Some people advocate Eclectic method greatly and some criticize it harshly. Of course, it has its own advantages and disadvantages. The advantages lay in general understanding aspects. Firstly, with this theory, it becomes easier and more possible for the learners to understand the language of the text with the context of culture. Secondly, it blends the practice of listening, speaking, reading and writing into an organic whole. It is obvious that any one method does not serve the right purpose of teaching English. This is how teaching English by combination of various methods and approaches will help the teacher to teach English effectively. Teaching of English should be made easy by brining into realistic situation, the best way of teaching English is by creating situations. The situation makes the language easily comprehensible. It connects a closer link between an expressions and usage by coordinating meaning. It is also important that creating situations should be appropriate to students 'level and their context of culture. Teachers of English themselves are not very efficient in many cases. This is why Eclectic method may be appropriate in many situations. It advocates that number of methods can be used based on the selection of particular method which depends on level of students. However, basic principle learning is simplicity. Eclectic method of learning is an integral part of the total learning process.

Larsen-Freeman (2000) and Mellow (2000) both have used the term principled eclecticism to describe a desirable, coherent, pluralistic approach to language teaching. Eclecticism involves the use of variety of language learning activities, each of which may have very different characteristics and may be motivated by different underlying assumption. The use eclecticism is due to the fact that there are strengths and weaknesses of single theory based methods. Reliance upon a single theory of teaching has been criticized because the use of a limited number of techniques can become mechanic. The students thus cannot get benefits of learning.

Experience has shown time and again that sticking blindly to a single ' pure' method or approach to ELT leads to marginal results and short-lived competencies in restricted areas of the foreign language practice. Eclecticism has a very strong advantage to recommend it under various constrained circumstances. It involves a philosophy of local solutions to local problems. It is a very democratic approach to language allowing for a freedom of choice. (Tarone & Yule 1989:10). Wills (1990) sees an eclectic approach as a response to the conflict between syllabus and methodology, which are not discrete options." Brumfit (1984) recommends that a language learning program should provide a balance of activities. Some of which focus on accuracy and some on fluency. Accuracy presupposes a focus on form and fluency-on exchanging meaning accomplishing tasks and reaching outcomes. Crombie points out a recent tendency -syllabus designers accept eclecticism as offering better opportunities for better teaching. Increasingly,

syllabus designers seem to be adopting the view that the best syllabus will in many cases, be one which is based on eclecticism: one which emerges from a combination of approaches rather than from a single approach. (Crombie 1985:10)

The real issue is not which syllabus to put first: it is how to integrate eight or so syllabuses (functional, notional, situational, topic, phonological, lexical, structural, skills) into a sensible teaching program (Swan 1990:89). An eclectic approach based on the structural, functional notional and communicative approaches to language teaching could keep a balance of accuracy and fluency.

TOTAL PHYSICAL RESPONSE

Total Physical Response (TPR) is a language teaching method built around the coordination of speech and action; it attempts to teach language through physical (motor) activity. Developed by James Asher, a professor of psychology at San Jose State University, California, it draws on several traditions, including developmental psychology, and humanistic pedagogy, as well as on language teaching procedures proposed by Harold and Dorothy Palmer in 1925. In a developmental sense, Asher sees successful adult second language learning as a parallel process to child's first language acquisition. He claims that speech directed to young children consists primarily of commands, which children respond to physically before they begin to produce verbal responses. He feels that adults should recapitulate the processes by which children acquire their native language. Asher shares with the school of humanistic psychology a concern for the role of affective (emotional) factors in language learning. A method that is undemanding in terms of linguistic production and that involves game-like movements reduces learner stress, he believes, and creates a positive mood in the learner, which facilitates learning.

Objectives Syllabus and in Total Physical Response Method

The general objectives of Total Physical Response are to teach oral proficiency at a beginning level. Comprehension is a means to an end, and the ultimate aim is to teach basic speaking skills. A TPR course aims to produce learners who are capable, of an uninhibited communication that is intelligible to a native speaker. Specific instructional objectives are not elaborated, for these will, depend on the particular needs of the learners. Whatever goals are set, however, must be attainable through the use of action-based drills in the imperative form.

Syllabus

The type of syllabus Asher uses can be inferred from an analysis of the exercise types employed in TPR classes. This analysis reveals the use of a sentence-based syllable with grammatical and lexical criteria being primary in selecting teaching items. Unlike methods that operate from a grammar-based or structural view of the core elements of language, Total Physical Response requires initial attention to meaning rather than to the form of items. Grammar is thus taught inductively.

Asher also suggests that a fixed number of items be introduced at a time, to facilitate ease of differentiation and assimilation. "In an hour, it is possible for students to assimilate 12 to 36 new lexical items depending upon the size of the group and the stage of training" (Asher 1977: 42). A course designed around Total Physical Response principles, however, would not be expected to follow a TPR syllabus exclusively.

Role of Learners Teachers and Material in Total Physical Response Method

Learners in Total Physical Response have the primary roles of listener and performer. They listen attentively and respond physically to commands given by the teacher. Learners are also expected to recognize and respond to novel combinations of previously taught items. They are required to produce novel combinations of their own. Learners monitor and evaluate their own progress. They are encouraged to speak when they feel ready to speak - that is, when a sufficient basis in the language has been internalized. The teacher plays an active and direct role in Total Physical Response. It is the teacher who decides what to teach, who models and presents the new materials, and who selects supporting materials for classroom use. Asher recommends detailed lesson plans: "It is wise to write out the exact utterances you will be using and especially the novel commands because the action is so fast-moving there is usually not time for you to create spontaneously" (1977: 47).

Lesson-05

ERROR ANALYSIS: NATURE OF ERRORS AND MISTAKES

Outline:

- **Error Analysis: Nature of Errors and Mistakes**
 - Error Analysis
 - Contrast between Behavioristic and Mentalistic attitude to errors
 - What is Error Analysis?
 - Nature and purpose
 - Stages of errors analysis
 - Causes of errors
 - Inter-lingual errors
 - Intra-lingual errors
 - Overgeneralization

Topic-017: Error Analysis

What is an Error?

An error is a learner language form that deviates from, or violates, a target language rule. An error according to Corder, takes place when the deviation arises due to lack of knowledge. An error cannot be self-corrected. (Ellis, 1994) In linguistics, according to J. Richard an error is the use of a word, a speech act and/ or grammatical items in such a way it seems imperfect and significant of an incomplete learning. According to James (1998:77) an error arises “only when there was no intention to commit one”.

Errors are typically produced by learners who do not yet fully command some institutionalized language system; they arise due to the imperfect competence in the target language.

Mistakes and Errors

In order to analyze learner language in an appropriate perspective, it is crucial to make a distinction between mistakes and errors, technically two very different phenomena.

Mistake—refers to a performance error that is either a random guess or a “slip”, in that is a failure to utilize a known system correctly. Native speakers make mistakes. When attention is called to them, they can be self-corrected.

Error—a noticeable deviation from the adult grammar of a native speaker, reflects the competence of the learner

Topic-018: Contrast between Behavioristic and Mentalistic Attitude to Errors

Behaviorists' View: People learn language by responding to an external stimuli and receiving proper reinforcement. By this repetition, a proper habit is formed and language learning takes place. Therefore, errors were deemed as a sign of failure on the part of the learners as well as teachers.

Mentalists' View: The conviction is that error is inevitable. It is integral part of learning process and developing competence. It should not be regarded as a sign of failure but as an evidence that student is heading his way towards the correct rules.

Topic-019: What is Error Analysis?

Corder (1974) defines Error Analysis (EA) as what has come to be known as error analysis has to do with the investigation of the language of second language learners. Error analysis is linguistic analysis that focuses on the errors learners make by comparing between the errors made in the target language (TL) and that TL itself. The first step in Error Analysis (EA) requires the determination of elements in the sample of learner language which deviate from the TL in some way. EA is important as errors determine whether those errors are systematic, and (if possible) explain what caused them. EA is an important source of information to teachers:

- It provides information on students' errors
- Helps teachers to correct students' errors
- Improves the effectiveness of teachers, students and researchers (Michaelides, 1990, p. 30)
- Assess the remedial work necessary for English as a Second Language (ESL) students preparing for an English Language test and to help students avoid the most common errors.

EA in SLA was established in the 1960s by Stephen Pit Corder and his colleagues. Pit Corder (1967) ‘Father’ of Error Analysis through his article ‘The significance of Learner Errors’ that Error Analysis took a new turn. Error Analysis (EA) was an alternative to contrastive analysis, an approach influenced by behaviorism through which applied linguists sought to use the formal distinctions between the learners' first and second languages to predict errors. Error analysis showed that contrastive analysis was unable to predict a great majority of errors, although its more valuable aspects have been incorporated into the study of language transfer. A key finding of error analysis has been that many learner errors are produced by learners making faulty inferences about the rules of the new language.

Topic-020: Nature and Purpose of Error Analysis

The first step in Error Analysis (EA) requires the determination of elements in the sample of learner language which deviate from the TL in some way. For this purpose, distinction should be made between error and mistake. According to James (1998) an error arises “only when there was no intention to commit one”. Errors are systematic, consistent deviance which is characteristic of the learning produced by learner’ linguistics system at given stage of learning. Errors are typically produced by learners who do not yet fully command some institutionalized language

system; they arise due to the imperfect competence in the target language. Whereas, according to Fauziati (2009) the mistakes are deviations due to performance factors such as memory limitation, fatigue and emotional strain. They are typically irregular and can be readily corrected by the learners themselves when their attention is drawn to them.

Two Main Approaches:

There are two main approaches to study learner's errors.

1. Contrastive approach
2. Error analysis

The main difference between these two approaches is that the first one believes that native language interference is the major source of error in second language learning that behaviorist theory suggested. But, on the other hand Error analysis is related to pedagogical strategies to tackle the errors in second language learning. "Error analysis main concerns are organizing remedial courses and devising appropriate materials and teaching strategies based on the findings of theoretical error analysis" (Erdogan 2005)

Error analysis consists of a comparison between the errors made in the target language and the target language itself. Error analysis is closely related to the study of **error treatment in language teaching**. Today, the study of errors is particularly relevant for **focus on form** teaching methodology. Error analysis is one of the major topics in the field of second language acquisition research. Errors are an integral part of language learning. The learners Errors have long been interested for second and foreign language researches. The basic task of error analysis is to describe how learning occurs by examining the learner's output and this includes his/her correct and incorrect utterances.

Aims of Error analysis:

The primary aims of error analysis were:

1. To identify types and patterns of errors
2. To establish error taxonomies
3. Common difficulties in second language acquisition are to be identified. —
4. On this basis, error analysis is supposed to contribute to a comprehensive knowledge and processes of second language acquisition.
5. In addition, results are to be used for the revision of theories of language learning and it also helps to evaluate and improve language teaching.

These were supposed to be used to describe interlanguage and its development, i.e., the learner's internal syllabus common difficulties in second language acquisition were to be identified. On this basis Error analysis was supposed to contribute to a comprehensive knowledge about processes of second language acquisition always assuming with Chomsky that there is something like a language acquisition device.

Justifications of EA

Corder, (1981:112) suggests that there are two justifications for studying learners' errors:

- its relevance to language teaching.
- the study of the language acquisition process.

Objects of EA

According to Corder (1974) error analysis has two objects:

- The **theoretical** object deals with what and how a learner learns when he studies a second language.'
- The **applied** object enables the learner 'to learn more efficiently by manipulating knowledge of his vernacular for academic purposes'.

Why is EA Done?

Sercombe, (2000) explains that EA serves three purposes.

1. Firstly, to find out the level of language proficiency the learner has reached.
2. Secondly, to obtain information about common difficulties in language learning.
3. Thirdly, to find out how people learn a language.

Corder's Explanation of Error

Corder(1974) distinguishes between systematic and non-systematic errors: **non-systematic errors occur in one's native language** whereas, second language (L2) errors are systemic errors.

Topic-021: Stages of Error Analysis

According to Corder (1974) there are five stages of error analysis, they are:

1. Collection of data
2. Identification of errors
3. Description of errors
4. Explanation of errors
5. Evaluation of errors

1. Collection of Data:

The first stage of error analysis is 'collection of data'. We have to collect the relevant data at this stage. Data may be written or spoken, general or specific. Researchers have identified three broad types of error analysis according to the size of the sample. These types are: massive, specific and incidental samples.

A **massive** sample involves collecting several samples of language use from a large number of learners in order to compile a comprehensive list of errors, representative of the entire population. A **specific** sample consists of one sample of language use collected from a limited number of learners.

An **incidental** sample involves only one sample of language use produced by a single learner.

All of them are relevant in the corpus collection but the relative utility and proficiency of each varies in relation to the main goal. In other words, in this first step, the researcher has to be aware of his research, and the main objective of this stage is selecting a proper data collection system.

2. Identification of Errors:

After data collection it is identified. It means distinguishing errors. For this, errors are distinguished from mistakes in general.

An error is made when the deviation arises as a result of lack of knowledge while a mistake or slip occurs when learners fail to perform to their competence in the target language. Indeed, the identification of errors depends on four crucial questions.

The first question is to set up what target language should be used as the point of evaluation for the study.

The second is related to the differences between "errors" and "mistakes or slips". An error is made when the deviation arises as a result of lack of knowledge while a mistake or slip occurs when learners fail to perform to their competence in the target language. Normally, a mistake or slip is immediately corrected by the learner.

The third question is about interpretation. There are two kinds of interpretation: overt and covert. An overt error is easy to identify because there is a clear deviation in form (She solded her car). A covert error occurs in utterances that are syntactically and semantically well-formed but pragmatically odd. A covert error occurs in utterances that are superficially well-formed but which do not mean what the learner intended them to mean. For example, the utterance from (Corder, 1971 a): "It was stopped." is apparently grammatical until it becomes clear that "it" refers to "the wind".

The fourth question is focused on deviations. There are two kinds of deviation: correctness and appropriateness. Their difference is very simple: the first is a deviation of the rules of the language usage (I did ate with her) and the other is a deviation of the language use (she can to do whatever she wants).

3. Description of Errors:

The description of learner errors involves a comparison of the learner's idiosyncratic utterances with a reconstruction of those utterances in the target language. Trying to identify general ways in which the learners utterances differ from target-language utterances.

Once all the errors have been identified, they can be described. Ellis says, "One way is to classify errors into four grammatical categories:

1. Omission (leaving out an item that is required for correct grammatical constructions)

For example: He cooking

Ellis (1997, p. 23) points out that "classifying errors in these ways can help us to diagnose learners' learning problems at any stage of their development and to plot how changes in error patterns occur over time".

Common Types of Omissions

Erdogan (2005, p. 264) makes the aforementioned categories very clear by providing some common types of omissions:

- Morphological omission (Hand I the pliers.)
- Syntactical omission (I hungry.)

2. Addition (addition of unnecessary elements) Addition is defined as the presence of an item that should not appear in well-formed utterance. For Example:

She doesn't works at hospital.

3. Substitution (use of one element in the place of another or wrong form of morpheme)

4. Misinformation and Mis-ordering (incorrect placement of a morpheme or group of morphemes in an utterance)

Misinformation is the use of the wrong form of the morpheme or structure.

For Example: The chair was maked by the carpenter.

Mis-ordering is regarded as the incorrect placement of a morpheme or group of morphemes in an utterance.

For Example: What is doing my mother?

Further, Corder distinguishes three types of errors according to their systematicity:

Pre-systematic errors occur when the learner is unaware of the existence of a particular rule in the target language. These are random.

Systematic errors occur when the learner has discovered a rule but it is the wrong one.

Post-systematic errors occur when the learner knows the correct target language rule but uses it inconsistently (i.e. makes a mistake).

4. Explanation of Errors:

Explanation is concerned with establishing the source of the error, i.e. accounting for why it was made. This stage is the most important for SLA research as it involves an attempt to establish the processes responsible for L2 acquisition. Taylor (1986), points out that, the error source may be psycholinguistic, sociolinguistic, or may reside in the discourse structure.

Psycholinguistic sources concern the nature of the L2 knowledge system and the difficulties learners have in using it in production.

Sociolinguistic sources involve such matters as the learners' ability to adjust their language in accordance with the social context.

Discourse sources involve problems in the organization of information into a coherent 'text'.

Task of Tracing the Source of Error: While explaining the error we try to find out different sources of errors. The sources of errors can be:

'Inter-lingual' (i.e. due to L1 or L2 interference)

- Transfer Errors: L2 learners attempt to make use of their L1

'Intra-lingual': Sometimes errors can be committed because of overgeneralization of rules and inherent difficulties within the same language.

- Systematic Errors: L2 learners create rules on their own, different to the rules of the target language.
- Universal Errors: L2 learners commit the same grammatical errors.
- Overgeneralized Errors: L2 learners overgeneralize form that they find easy to learn and process.

The errors can be explained by referring to the faulty methods and techniques of teaching.

Because of difficulties with error analysis, some researchers (Krashen & Pon, 1975) have abandoned altogether the attempt to find sources of errors. Assuming, however, that analysis by source is still possible, it would be interesting to find out how adults perform as regards error production

5. Evaluation of Errors:

At this stage the teachers correct the errors. There are mainly two opposing views regarding the correction of errors. The first view holds that there is no need to correct the learners' errors. The teacher should correct only what is essential and make the students to correct the errors themselves. For this, just re-teaching of the items rather than correction endures the better acquisition and language use.

The evaluation of learner error poses a great number of problems. It is not clear what criteria judges have used when asked to assess the categories of an error. Indeed, error evaluation is influenced by the context in which the errors occurred. **Various Techniques of Correcting Errors:**

- Teacher correction techniques,
- Self-correction techniques and
- Pair correction techniques

Topic-022: Causes of Error Analysis

The following factors have been identified by various error analysis:

1) Mother Tongue Interface:

Learning a language is a matter of habit formation when someone tries to learn new habits. The old ones will interfere with the new one. The cause of error is called first language interface.

2) Carelessness:

Carelessness is often closely related to lack of motivation. Many teachers will admit that it is not always the student's fault if he loses interest perhaps the material does not suit them.

3) Translation:

Translation is one of the causes of error. This happens because a student translates his first language sentence into the target language word by word. This is the most common cause of error.

4) Loan words:

Students find it easier to remember the spelling of the loan word rather than the spelling of original English words.

For Example: Every one who's taking part is given numbers (number).

It is a mistri (mystery).

5) Inherent difficulties of Target Language:

English is a rich complex language. In grammar we have taught and reached in simple past tense.

But we cannot say taught. The plural of tooth is teeth but for booth is not beeth.

Interlingual and Intralingual Errors:

One of the first and the most important studies conducted in the field of error analysis was done by Richer (1974). Error analysis can be considered as a fundamental tool in language teaching in order to reorganize teachers' point of view and his methodology for filling the students' gaps. Richer distinguishes two types of errors

1. Interlingual Errors

2. Intralingual Errors

Interlingual errors are caused by mother tongue interference.

Intralingual errors are occurred during the learning process of the second language at the stage when the learners have not really acquired the knowledge.

Interlingual errors are also subdivided into the following categories

Over generalization errors the learner creates a deviant structure on the basis of other structures in the target language.

Example: He can sing

Correction: He sings

Ignorance of rule restrictions: the learner applies rules to context where they are not applicable.

Example: He made me to go rest through the extension of the pattern he asked me to go.

Incomplete application of rules: the learner fails to use a fully develop structure for example you like to sing? In place of do you like to sing?

False Hypothesis: The learners do not fully understand a distinction in target language for example the use of was as a marker of past tense.

Example: In one day it was happened.

Correction: One day it happened.

Topic-023: Overgeneralization

In linguistics, *overgeneralization* is the application of a grammatical rule in cases where it doesn't apply. The term *overgeneralization* is most often used in connection with language acquisition by children. For example, a young child may say "foots" instead of "feet," overgeneralizing the morphological rule for making plural nouns.

Examples and Observations:

- "'If I *knowed* the last bug I *eated* would be the last bug I *eated*, I woulda *eated* it slower,' Phil said sadly." (Cathy East Dubowski, *Rugrats Go Wild*. Simon Spotlight, 2003)
- "I'm not scared of Dan, Mama, he was nice to me. He *gived* me drinks of water, and covered me up with his coat. and when he *goed* away, he said a prayer *atme*." (Anne Hassett, *The Sojourn*. Trafford, 2009)
- "Most of you have probably heard a child say a word that you would never say. For example, children acquiring English routinely produce verbs like *bringed* and *goed* or nouns like *mouses* and *foots*, and they certainly haven't learned these forms from the adults around them.

So they aren't imitating adult speech, but they are figuring out grammatical rules, in this case the way to form past tense verbs and plural nouns. This process of figuring out a grammatical rule and applying it generally is called **overgeneralization**. They will later modify their natural rules of past tense and plural formation to accommodate the exceptions, including *brought*, *went*, *mice*, and *feet*.

Three Phases of Overgeneralization

Children **overgeneralize** in the early phases of acquisition, meaning that they apply the regular rules of grammar to irregular nouns and verbs. Overgeneralization leads to forms which we sometimes hear in the speech of young children such as *goed*, *eated*, *foots*, and *fishes*. This process is often described as consisting of three phases:

Phase 1: The child uses the correct past tense of *go*, for instance, but does not relate this past-tense *went* to present-tense *go*. Rather, *went* is treated as a separate lexical item.

Phase 2: The child constructs a rule for forming the past tense and begins to overgeneralize this rule to irregular forms such as *go* (resulting in forms such as *goed*).

Phase 3: The child learns that there are (many) exceptions to this rule and acquires the ability to apply this rule selectively.

Lesson-06

SYLLABUS DESIGNING

Outline:

○ Syllabus Designing

- ✧ Definition and scope of syllabus
- ✧ Considerations common to all syllabuses
- ✧ Dichotomies of Syllabuses
 - Analytical & Synthetic Syllabuses
 - Product vs. Process-oriented syllabuses

■ Product-oriented Syllabuses

- Grammatical syllabus
- Notional functional syllabus

■ Process-oriented Syllabuses

- Procedural Syllabus
- Process Syllabus

✧ Language Syllabus

✧ Types of Language Syllabus

1. The Situational Syllabus
2. The Functional-Notional Syllabus
3. The Task-Based Syllabus

✧ Needs analysis for syllabus designing

Topic-024: Definition and scope of syllabus

A clarification of terms: within the literature, there is some confusion over the terms 'syllabus' and 'curriculum'. The terms curriculum and syllabus are sometimes used interchangeably, sometimes differentiated, and sometimes misused and misunderstood.

What is a curriculum?

Curriculum refers to all those activities in which children engage under the auspices of the school. This includes not only what pupils learn, but how they learn it, how teachers help them learn, using what supporting materials, styles and methods of assessment, and in what kind of facilities. Curriculum is a theoretical document and refers to the programme of studies in an educational system or institution.

Curriculum deals with the abstract general goals of education which reflect the overall educational and cultural philosophy of a country, national and political trends as well as a theoretical orientation to language and language learning. A curriculum provides the overall rationale for educating students. It addresses the questions like:

- What is the purpose of educating students in this particular institution/ educational level?
- What kinds of knowledge should students be taught?
- What kinds of learning experiences do the students need to go through in order to acquire the knowledge and achieve our purposes?
- What kinds of teaching methods should be used to help students acquire the knowledge and achieve our purposes?
- How should these learning experiences be organised?
- How should we assess learners in order to see whether the purposes have been achieved?

By answering these questions, a curriculum provides information on:

- the goals of education,
- subjects to be taught,
- activities learners should be engaged in (how)
- methods and materials,
- allocation of time and resources and
- assessment of students and of the curriculum itself.

Curriculum vs. Syllabus

Candlin (1984) suggests that curricula are concerned with:

- Making general statements about language learning, learning purpose and experience.
- Evaluation and the role relationships of teachers and learners.

Syllabuses, on the other hand, are More localized, based on accounts and records of what actually happens at the classroom level as teachers and learners apply a given curriculum to their own situation.

What is a Syllabus?

A syllabus is a statement of content which is used as the basis for planning courses of various kinds, and that the task of the syllabus designer is to select and grade this content. Syllabuses are specifications of the content of language teaching which have been submitted to some degree of structuring or ordering with the aim of making teaching and learning a more effective process. At its simplest level a syllabus can be described as a statement of what is to be learnt.

Syllabus refers to the content or subject matter of an individual subject . It is a detailed and operational document which specifies the content of a particular subject. It is a kind of plan which translates the abstract goals of the curriculum into concrete learning objectives. While a curriculum is a theoretical, policy document, a syllabus is a guide for teachers and learners that indicates what is to be achieved through the process of teaching and learning.

Definitions of Syllabus

“A plan or what is to be achieved through our teaching and our student’s learning.”(Breen, 1984)

Function of a syllabus is “to specify what is to be taught and in what order.” (Prabhu, 1984)

“A summary of the content to which learners will be exposed.”(Yalden, 1987)

Defining Syllabus Design

To begin with, then, we shall define syllabus design, which is concerned with the ‘what’ of a language. Some language specialists believe that syllabus (the selection and grading of content) and methodology should be kept separate; others think otherwise.

Syllabuses should be defined solely in terms of the selection and grading of content, or whether they should also attempt to specify and grade learning tasks and activities.

Narrow view of syllabus design: a syllabus is only concerned with the specification of learning objectives and the selection and grading of content.

The **broadier view** argues that a syllabus is not only concerned with the selection and grading of content but also with the selection of learning tasks and activities. In other words, syllabus design is also concerned with methodology.

Defining Syllabus Design

a. Specific Practical Aspects

(Particular examples, specific cases within the topic)

1. **Description:** Who, what, where? What persons, materials, equipment, items, settings?
2. **Sequence:** What happens? What happens next? What is the plot? What are the processes, procedures, or routines?
3. **Choice:** What are the choices, conflicts, alternatives, dilemmas, decisions

b. General Theoretical Aspects

(What are the general concepts, principles, and values in the topic material?)

1. **Classification:** What concepts apply? How are they related to each other?
 2. **Principles:** What principles are there? (cause-effect, means-end, methods and techniques, rules, norms, strategies?)
 3. **Evaluation:** What values and standards are appropriate? What counts as good or bad?
- (Adapted from Mohan 1986: 36—7)

Requirements of a syllabus

The course plan should provide an accessible framework of the knowledge and skills on which teachers and learners will work. It should:

- offer a sense of continuity and direction in the teacher's and learners' work.
- represent a retrospective account of what has been achieved.
- provide a basis on which learner progress may be evaluated.
- be sufficiently precise so that it may be assessed through implementation as being more or less appropriate for its purposes and users.

It is a document of administrative convenience and will only be partly justified on theoretical grounds, and so is negotiable and adjustable. It must harmonize the three contexts within which it is located:

- the wider language curriculum,
- the language classroom and the participants within it,

the educational and social reality that the course-plan is supposed to serve.

Scope of Syllabus Designing

Within the literature, there is some confusion over the terms ‘syllabus’ and ‘curriculum’. It would, therefore, be as well to give some indication at the outset of what is meant here by syllabus, and also how syllabus design is related to curriculum development. In particular, there have been few attempts to apply, in any systematic fashion, principles of curriculum development to the planning, implementation, and evaluation of language programs.

Topic-025: Considerations Common to all Syllabuses

- Needs analysis
- Goals and objectives
- Content specification
- Learning tasks and activities
- Resources and materials
- Curriculum implementation
- Curriculum management
- Learner assessment
- Programme evaluation
- Teacher development

Topic-026: Dichotomies of Syllabus

- A. Analytic and Synthetic Syllabus
- B. Product-oriented and Process-oriented Syllabus
- A. **Analytic and Synthetic Syllabus**

There are many different ways in which syllabus proposals of one sort or another might be analyzed. One dimension of analysis which has been the subject of a great deal of discussion and comment is the synthetic/analytic dimension.

1. Analytic Syllabus

Analytic syllabus is organized in terms of the purposes for which the learner is learning the language and the kind of performance that are necessary to meet these purposes. The starting point for syllabus design is not the grammatical system of the language but the communicative purpose for which language is used. The language and content are drawn from the input and are selected and graded primarily according to what the learner’s need to do the real world communicative task. In the task, linguistic knowledge that is built through the unit is applied to the solving of a communicative problem. The content in the analytic syllabus is defined in terms of situation, topics, items and other academic or school subjects.

2. Synthetic Syllabus

Synthetic syllabus is the one in which the different parts of language is taught separately and step by step in additive fashion. So, that the learner's acquisition face a process of gradual accumulation of parts until, the whole structure of the language has been built up. Grammatical criteria are used to break the language into discrete units. These items are graded according to their

(1) Grammatical contexts

(2) Fluency of occurrence

(3) Contrastive difficulty in relation to L1

(4) Situation need and

(5) Pedagogic convenience.

Some applied linguists assume that the synthetic syllabuses should not be restricted to only grammatical syllabus rather it can be applied to any syllabus whose content is product-oriented.

Distinction between the Synthetic and Analytic Syllabus

It was Wilkins (1976) who first drew attention to the distinction between synthetic and analytic syllabuses. He described the synthetic approach in the following terms:

- A synthetic language teaching strategy is one in which the different parts of language are taught separately and step by step so that acquisition is a process of gradual accumulation of parts until the whole structure of language has been built up.
- The distinction between the synthetic and analytic syllabus is that the former views that nature of learning is additive while later views that the nature of learning is holistic (having regard to the whole of something rather than just to parts of it.)

Analytic syllabuses	Synthetic syllabuses
Tasked-based	Structural
Procedural	Situational
Notional-functional [According to Wilkins (1976)]	Notional-functional [(According to Long & Crooks (1992))]
Content-based	
Negotiated	

Analytic/Synthetic-oriented syllabi

B. Product and Process Oriented Syllabus

A **product-oriented syllabus** focuses on things learnt at the end of the learning process (outcomes) rather than the process itself. It can be compared with a **process-oriented syllabus**, which focuses on the processes of learning.

A **process-oriented syllabus** focuses on the skills and **processes** involved in learning language. It can be compared with a **product-oriented syllabus**, which focuses on completed acts of communication, the outputs.

Product-oriented Syllabus

As product-oriented syllabus focuses on the product therefore, many people have questioned the validity of separating syllabi into process- and product-oriented and argue that most syllabi are, and must be, a combination of processes and outcomes.

Example:

Grammatical and functional-notional are product-oriented as they focus on grammatical, functional and lexical outcomes.

In the Classroom

Learners working with a product-oriented syllabus can be supported with other approaches and techniques. For example, teachers can incorporate elements of learner training and development from learner-centered syllabi, or use activities from process-oriented syllabi such as task-based learning.

Grammatical Syllabus

Grammatical Syllabus is a synthetic syllabus and its contents are product-oriented. It is the most common syllabus type in which syllabus input is selected and graded according to grammatical notions of simplicity and complexity.

Criticism

The most rigid grammatical syllabus introduces one item at a time to the learners and requires mastery of that item before moving on to the next. The transmission from lesson to lesson is intended to enable material in one lesson to prepare the ground for the next and conversely for material in the next to appear to grow out of the previous one. One difficulty the grammatical designers pointed out that, it is difficult to isolate and present one discrete item at a time, particularly if one wants to provide some sort of context for the language.

The Notional-Functional Syllabus

It is the best known of contemporary language teaching syllabus types. **A notional-functional syllabus** is an approach where the organization of the material is determined with notions or ideas that learners expect to be able to express through the target language and the functions acts learners expect to be able to accomplish.

Notional-functional Approach

The **notional-functional approach** in ESL is a way of structuring a syllabus around "notions," real-life situations in which people communicate, which are further broken down into "functions," specific aims of communication. It is important to note that notional/functionism was initially associated with a cognitive type of learning theory that called for explicit presentation of language material, conscious recognition, and practice. More recently, it has begun to incorporate experiential learning theory, similar to Krashen's acquisition theory, and to use techniques such as creating information gaps and problem-solving tasks as classroom activities (Richards & Rodgers, 1986).

Process Oriented Syllabus

A process oriented syllabus focuses on the skills and processes involved in learning language. It focuses on the processes of learning. Process-oriented syllabuses are developed as a result of a sense of failure in product-oriented syllabuses to enhance communicative language skills.

Example: **Process syllabus and procedural syllabus** are examples of process oriented syllabus.

Process Syllabus

Rather focusing on the features of the products of writing, such as letters, compositions, notes, reports etc, a process-writing syllabus would focus on the processes writers use to complete

their tasks, such as: collecting information, —organizing ideas, drafting and revising. Learners working with a product-oriented syllabus can be supported with other approaches and techniques. **For Example:** Teachers can incorporate elements of learner training and development from learner-centered syllabi or use activities from process-oriented syllabi such as task-based learning.

Working on the language processes (writing, speaking) is hard work for learners. It involves thinking, organizing and planning. If time is well-invested in skills that will enable the learner to become an autonomous writer, speaker.

Product-oriented Evaluation

Product-oriented evaluation seeks to assess performance through a finalized product that should meet specific requirements. The teacher may or may not choose to engage in the process that will bring about the final product, because that is not what is being considered. Rather than through interaction, the product-oriented evaluation is often accompanied by a rubric that the student evaluates himself to see if the expectations of the final product are being met. It is a summative, and not a formative type of evaluation that could work as a short-term solution, for specific projects.

An example of a product-oriented evaluation is, for instance, a writing homework due the next day that must include certain things to achieve a good score.

Process-oriented Evaluation

Process-oriented evaluations are based on observing the development of the learning processes as they occur in the student throughout the lesson. It is a step-by-step interaction where there is input and output at all times between the teacher and the student. During a process-oriented evaluation the student is allowed to make mistakes, as they constitute an important part of the entire exercise.

An example of a process-oriented evaluation is the teaching of writing. Time and patience are worth the investment in this type of evaluation because the teacher can really see how much the student is actually learning.

Difference between the Two Approaches

The **product approach** focuses on writing tasks in which the learner imitates, copies and transforms teacher supplied models, the **process approach** focuses on the steps involved in creating a piece of work. The primary goal of **product** writing is an error-free coherent text.

Comparison

Product Oriented Syllabus

- Focus is on knowledge and skills.

- Skills that learnt at the end of learning session
- Focuses on completed acts of communication (outputs)
- Emphasis on the output

Process oriented Syllabus

- Focuses on the process of learning
- Skills that involved in language learning process
- Emphasis is on the process
- Series of action is important

Product oriented	Process oriented
—Functional-notional syllabus - Function: communicative purpose for which we use language. - Notion: conceptual meanings expressed through language.(objects, entities, logical relationships, etc.) - In this syllabus language contents is arranged according to learners communicational needs. - It sets realistic learning tasks - It provides for the teaching of real world language - It provides for the widespread promotion of foreign language courses	—Content based syllabus: - An approach to language teaching in which the focus is on the development of language through classroom activities - Designed to promote cognitive skills - Involves the integration of subject matter(what to talk about) and linguistic matter (how to talk about) - Theme based teaching - Language class activities are specific to the subject matter being taught - Teaching elements/course is structured around certain themes - Such as: Cooperative learning, task base/experiential learning, project work, whole language approach

Procedural Syllabus

The syllabus type designed by Prabhu and his colleagues is called the procedural syllabus, which consisted of a set of pedagogic tasks. The structure can be best learned when attention is concentrated on meaning. In this type of syllabus design the focus is on the learner. Tasks and activities are designed but not the linguistic content. Learner focuses on trying to solve the meaning behind the text. The procedural syllabus is often confused with the task syllabus, another recent development in language teaching.

Despite some differences in practice, the principles underlying procedural and task-based syllabuses are very similar. In fact, they are seen as synonymous by Richards, Platt, and Weber (1985), who describe them both as follows:

... a syllabus which is organised around tasks, rather than in terms of grammar or vocabulary. For example the syllabus may suggest a variety of different kinds of tasks which the learners are expected to carry out in the language, such as using the telephone to obtain information; drawing maps based on oral instructions; performing actions based on commands given in the target language; giving orders and instructions to others, etc.

Topic-027: Language Syllabus

Components of Language Syllabus

Van Ek lists the following as **necessary components of a language syllabus:**

1. The situations in which the foreign language will be used, including the topics which will be dealt with.
2. The language activities in which the learner will engage.
3. The language functions which the learner will fulfil.
4. What the learner will be able to do with respect to each topic.
5. The general notions which the learner will be able to handle.
6. The specific (topic-related) notions which the learner will be able to handle.
7. The language forms which the learner will be able to use
8. The degree of skill with which the learner will be able to perform.

Topic-028: Types of Language syllabus

Until recently, one syllabus type, i.e. structural or grammatical syllabus has dominated in language teaching. This type of syllabus reflects a synthetic approach to language teaching and learning (Yalden, 1987:21). The synthetic approach to syllabus design is one in which the different language items are taught step-by-step. However, in the synthetic approach to syllabus, meaning (other than lexical meaning) didn't play a very important role in language. This shortcoming paved the way for a new approach to syllabus design- the analytic approach.

According to Yalden (1987:28), "within such an approach a semantic, meaning-based syllabus is produced which leads (again via various pedagogical strategies) to a somewhat wider goal: that of communicative competence". This type of syllabus is then also known as the "semantic syllabus" (Yalden, 1987:33).

From the analytic approach, an approach evolved which had the "goal of communication and interaction from the first day of study - at whatever age or learning level" (Finocchiaro & Brumfit, 1983:10). This new approach is called the Communicative Approach. Many teaching syllabi and methods have been based on the Communicative Approach. According to Richards and Rodgers (1994:66), syllabi and teaching methods based on the Communicative Approach aims to make communicative competence the goal of language teaching and develop procedures for the teaching of the four language skills that acknowledge the interdependence of language and communication. According to Richards and Rodgers (1994:68), the focus of these syllabi would

be on "communicative and contextual factors in language use". Such a syllabus would be "learner-centred and experience-based" (Richards & Rodgers, 1994:69).

All of these syllabi will start "from a communicative model of language and language use" and will seek to "translate this into a design for an instructional system, for materials, for teacher and learner roles and behaviors, and for classroom activities and techniques" (Richards & Rodgers, 1994:69). The following three types (dichotomies) of syllabi based on the Communicative Approach will be discussed:

1. The Situational Syllabus

2. The Functional-Notional Syllabus

3. The Task-Based Syllabus

1. The Situational Syllabus

The situational syllabus is closely related to the topical syllabus. According to Yalden (1987:35), the situational model will comprise units indicating specific situations, such as 'At the Post Office', 'Buying an Airline Ticket', or 'The Job Interview'. The topical or thematic syllabus is similar, but generally employs the procedure of grouping modules or lessons around a topic, something like barnacles clinging to the hull of a ship.

In this approach, the use of dialogues is very common as these form the basis of communication within a specific situation. However, the use of dialogues in the situational syllabus is quite different from the use of dialogues in a structural syllabus such as the Audio-lingual Method. Yalden (1987:36) describes examples of situational syllabi in which students are initially presented with a "problem situation" or "illustrative situation". The dialogues used in the situational syllabus, don't have language structures as their main focus, but rather their communicative effectiveness within a given situation.

Benefits

The benefits of a situational context are as follows:

1. It provides for concrete contexts within which to learn notions, functions, and structures, thus making it easier for most learners to envisage.
2. It may motivate learners to see that they are learning to meet their most pressing everyday communication needs.

Criticism

Yalden (1987:36) describes examples of situational syllabi in which students are initially presented with a "problem situation" or "illustrative situation". This "problem situation" is then followed by drills and inventions and then by "practice situations". It is thus evident that the

different situations created in Situational Syllabi determine the language structures to be learnt which is, however, a drawback in situational language syllabi. While the aim of the Situational Syllabus is communicative competence, the nature of its contents will not necessarily lead to total communicative competence. This shortcoming led to the development of the Functional-Notional syllabus.

2. The Functional-notional Syllabus

It is the best known of contemporary language teaching syllabus types. When dealing with this type of syllabus, it is important to first clarify the definitions of the terms used in the name. The term '**function**' refers to the communicative purpose of the speaker. These functions can be personal, interpersonal, directive, referential or imaginative and they can either be expressed through fixed formulae in the language or communicative expressions (Finocchiaro & Brumfit, 1983 :28). Thus, the functions to be expressed depend solely on the speaker.

'**Notions**' can be defined as the words following the functional expression. "Notions" are thus "meaning elements which may be expressed through nouns, pronouns, verbs, prepositions, conjunctions, adjectives, or adverbs"(Finocchiaro & Brumfit, 1983:14). Thus, notions will depend basically on three factors: the functions, the elements in the situation and the topic which is being discussed (Finocchiaro & Brumfit, 1983 : 15).

The researchers also make use of another term "**exponents**" in order to indicate the relationship between the above-mentioned elements: exponents are the language utterances or statements which stem from the function, the situation, and the topic. They are the language forms a speaker uses to express (to complete or realize) a message; to indicate an awareness of elements in the situation (social roles, for example, which will influence the formality or informality of the conversation); and to "keep to" the topic when it is important to do so, as in an interview. The syllabus is based on functional-notional approach that has been explained above under the head of product-oriented syllabuses.

3. Task-based Syllabuses

A task-based syllabus is based on task-based learning, an approach where learners carry out tasks such as solving a problem or planning an activity. The language learnt comes out of the linguistic demands of the activity. A task-based syllabus is structured around a series of these tasks.

Task-based syllabuses are constructed with varieties of tasks as the basic blocks, focusing on using the target language in real world rather than drilling on the isolate grammatical items. In making practical decisions about task-based syllabus design, one must consider all the possible factors that might affect the teachability of the syllabus. Adjusting the choice and integrating the different types according to learners' needs.

According to Skehan (1998:268), a **task** is an activity that should adhere to the following criteria:

- Meaning is primary.
- There is a goal which needs to be worked towards.
- The activity is outcome-evaluated.
- There is a real-world relationship.

In this type of syllabus, activities are not chosen in order to teach a specific lexical form, but that meaning is far more important. Further, activities focused on language itself are not tasks, as they need to have a real-world relationship. According to Skehan (1998:268), "What counts, in task-based approaches, is the way meaning is brought into prominence by the emphasis on goals and activities".

Skehan (1996:39) distinguishes between two forms of the task-based approach:

The **strong form** of task-based syllabus regards the task as the unit of instruction. This means that everything else that forms part of instruction are secondary.

On the other hand, in the **weak form** "tasks are a vital part of language instruction, but that they are embedded in a more complex pedagogic context". This means that tasks form an equal part with other teaching components in the whole process of focused instruction. In its weak form, then (as in the case of a functional-notional syllabus), the task based syllabus allows the teacher to adopt an eclectic approach.

The task-based syllabus can also be divided into two categories, determined by the person or people who choose the task. In a procedural task-based syllabus, the teacher or syllabus designer is the decision-maker. When, however, the students choose the tasks as well as the way in which they approach these tasks, a process task-based syllabus is referred to (Skehan, 1998:269).

The **drawback** of task-based syllabi seems to be the same as that of the situational syllabi, namely that "processing language to extract meaning does not guarantee automatic sensitivity to form" (Skehan, 1996:41). Further, there are many ways to implement the task based syllabus in the classroom. It would be very difficult within the context of a process task based syllabus where the students choose the activities and the way in which they are going to approach the tasks. However, in the case of a procedural task-based syllabus, the teacher has some control over the choice of activities and should therefore aim for communicative competence with the focus on meaning, and a sensitivity for the form of the language.

Difference between Procedural and Task based Syllabus

The procedural syllabus seems to be more suitable to learners in English as a second language (ESL) context where learners have ample opportunity to be exposed to English outside

the classroom. The goal of instruction is also another determining factor. The procedural syllabus with little emphasis on systematic error correction and focus on form seems to be more suitable for those who want to learn English for survival purposes, while the task-based syllabus seems more ideal for those who wish to pursue academic goals.

Finally, it seems that the procedural syllabus works better with elementary and pre-intermediate students, while the task-based syllabus is more compatible with intermediate students and above. This is mostly because beginning students need a course in which they can freely communicate removed from any form issues, while more advanced students need courses where there is a degree of focus on form through which they can produce accurate language.

There was relatively little information on this project, but this has changed with the publication of Prabhu's *Second Language Pedagogy*. Prabhu provides the following three task 'types' which are as follows:

1. *Information-gap activity*, which involves a transfer of given information from one person to another — or from one form or another, or from one place to another — generally calling for the decoding or encoding of information from or into language.
2. *Reasoning-gap activity*, which involves deriving some new information from given information through processes of inference, deduction, practical reasoning, or a perception of relationships or patterns.
3. *Opinion-gap activity*, which involves identifying and articulating a personal preference, feeling, or attitude in response to a given situation.

Criteria for Judging the Worth of Tasks

Candlin offers the following criteria for judging the worth of tasks. Good tasks, he suggests, should:

- Promote attention to meaning, purpose, negotiation
- Encourage attention to relevant data
- Draw objectives from the communicative needs of learners
- Allow for flexible approaches to the task, offering different routes, media, modes of participation, procedures
- Allow for different solutions depending on the skills and strategies drawn on by learners

A similar, though more comprehensive set of elements, is proposed by Shavelson and Stern (1981) who suggest that in planning instructional tasks, teachers need to consider:

- The subject matter to be taught
- Materials, i.e. those things the learner will observe/manipulate

-
- The activities the teacher and learners will be carrying out
 - The goals for the task
 - The abilities, needs and interests of the students
 - The social and cultural context of instruction

Syllabus Design: Needs Analysis

Needs analysis is directed mainly at the goals and content of a course. It examines what the learners know already and what they need to know. Needs analysis makes sure that the course will contain relevant and useful things to learn. Good needs analysis involves asking the right questions and finding the answers in the most effective way.

The first step of every syllabus design should be needs analysis, i.e. a set of techniques and procedures used for obtaining information about the learners and situations and purposes for which they want to learn the language. Actually, it was not until the early 1980s that needs analysis became a recognised stage in the process of syllabus design. First restricted to ESP courses only, its use later gradually extended to cover general courses as well. Today the overwhelming majority of language courses is based on needs analysis.

Need Analysis: Steps Involved

1. Deciding the purpose of a need analysis
2. The users of need analysis
3. The target population
4. Procedures for conducting needs analysis
5. Procedures for collecting information

Topic-029: Needs Analysis as the First Step in Syllabus Design

‘What is good for everything is good for nothing.’ This is one of the maxims each of us ought to bear in mind, and it is applicable to all spheres of life, not excluding language pedagogy. Any foreign language program follows certain guidelines, be they the general curriculum of a state school, the language philosophy of a language teaching institution, or even the outline of private tuition for a single student. The guidelines should not, however, be formulated in an ad hoc and haphazard manner, resulting from the school’s vague preferences, the instructor’s favorite teaching techniques and activities, his/her methodological ignorance, or the uncritical following of the current vogue. Conversely, every language course (any course, in fact), be it general or restricted, ought to be consciously designed taking three points into consideration:

- who we teach
- how to teach and, most importantly
- what to teach.

Going for the first textbook available, even when it has been widely recommended and highly appraised, may soon result in a pedagogical failure if the course book has been intended for a different age and occupation group (not to mention the language proficiency level) than our students, is based on a different language philosophy and theoretical framework and its teaching objectives and goals are divergent from ours. A notional-functional foreign language syllabus intended for secondary-school students cannot be deemed suitable for an executive demanding an intensive course in Business English or Wirtschaftdeutsch.

The first step of every syllabus design should therefore be needs analysis, i.e. a set of techniques and procedures used for obtaining information about the learners and situations and purposes for which they want to learn the language. Actually, it was not until the early 1980s that needs analysis became a recognised stage in the process of syllabus design. First restricted to ESP courses only, its use later gradually extended to cover general courses as well. Today the overwhelming majority of language courses is based on needs analysis.

Needs assessment requires the specific examining of both **(a) the present situation and (b) the target situation**. The former includes finding out the prospective or current learner's:

- social background (pair- or group work with students of a higher social status may be considered intimidating by some learners)
- educational background
- age and occupation
- former experience of and the present proficiency in the foreign language, but even more importantly the deficiencies and knowledge gaps between the target proficiency and the current proficiency of the learner
- preferred learning activities, methods, styles, and strategies
- availability (time constraints)
- aptitude for learning
- motivation.

The latter includes the learner's:

- immediate communicative needs
- learning goals; these may be considered on up to three levels which, if divergent or conflicting, should be successfully reconciled:
 - learner's wants and preferences (what the learner thinks s/he needs)
 - the expectations of the user institution (the university, employing company, etc.)
 - the general curriculum of the teaching institution (state/language school, university, etc.); this may also call for the need for a broader educational context analysis: the place of the FL in the school syllabus (in the case of state education), the duration and intensity of the course, the final exams (if present), classroom size, the resources available, etc.
- the expected standard of performance and linguistic correctness.

Needs Analysis: Data Collection

When going about the data collection, the following methods are usually used:

- questioning the learner himself/herself directly (by means of an oral interview or a written questionnaire); one must remember at this point, however, that an interview is highly subjective in the sense that the needs declared by the learners may be
- incongruous with the expectations of the future user institutions; moreover, many learners (young learners and teenagers in particular) lack clearly specified needs;
- consulting the learner's employer and colleagues;
- collecting and analysing data such as bulletins or manuals that the learners will have to read;
- investigation and observation of the situations in which the language will be used;
- discussion with teachers who have experience in handling similar courses;
- in order to assess the learner's current command of the language the teacher may also administer a placement test, interview the learner, or confine himself/herself to a review of the textbooks covered by the learner so far.

The data collected in this way will serve as the cornerstone, the starting point of designing a syllabus framework: formulating the goals of the course, determining its duration, intensity, and the teaching method (philosophy) applied (structural/situational/notional-functional/skills-based/combined), specifying the course objectives (defining the range of language tasks which the course graduates should be able to perform as a result of instruction) and standards of performance, and the selection, sequencing, and gradation of course content (i.e. situations/topics/themes/skills/functions/notions/language forms/tasks, etc.). This will eventually lead to the choice (or self-design) of suitable materials.

With this initial stage, which helps ensure that the course will be appropriate, effective, practical, and realistic, a course stands a good chance of being a success. The rest largely lies with the teacher.

Needs Analysis: Conclusion

Needs analysis is directed mainly at the goals and content of a course. It examines what the learners know already and what they need to know. Needs analysis makes sure that the course will contain relevant and useful things to learn. Good needs analysis involves asking the right questions and finding the answers in the most effective way.

LANGUAGE ASSESSMENT: TESTING AND EVALUATION**Outline:****o Language Assessment: Testing and Evaluation****o What is Testing and Evaluation?****o Kinds of Tests****• Proficiency test****• Achievement tests****• Diagnostics tests****• Placement tests****• Direct Vs. Indirect tests****• Discreet Point Vs. Criterion referenced Testing****• Objective Vs. Subjective testing****• Communicative language testing****o Characteristics of a good test****o Testing Communication Skills****• Reading tests****• Writing tests****• Speaking tests****• Listening tests****o Testing language sub-skills****• Vocabulary tests****• Grammar tests****• Pronunciation tests****o Using Web for Language Testing****Topic-030: What is Testing and Evaluation?**

Tests are any instruments of evaluation which measure ability, knowledge or performance by eliciting observable behavior from the test taker (Richards, 1999; Allan, 1995; Genesee & Apshur, 1996) as they try to make accurate predictions about small samples of performance in a complex structure like language (Allan, 1995).

In language context, a test is designed to measure and evaluate students' language proficiency according to different qualities (Hughes, 2003). Bachman and Palmer (1996) mention

the benefits of tests by stating that a test is useful when it has authenticity, interactiveness and practicality in addition to measurement qualities which are reliability and validity.

Difference between Testing and Evaluation

Education professionals make distinctions between evaluation and testing. However, all you really need to understand is that these are two different terms for referring to the process of figuring out how much you know about a given topic and that each term has a different meaning. **Testing** is used to examine someone's knowledge of something to determine what he or she knows or has learned. Testing measures the level of skill or knowledge that has been reached.

Evaluation is the process of making judgments based on criteria and evidence.

Reliability: An important aspect of test is being reliable. **Reliability** is defined as the extent to which a questionnaire, test, observation or any measurement tool produces the same results on repeated trials. In short, it is the stability or consistency of scores over time or across raters.

Three Aspects of Reliability: The degree to which an individual's responses (i.e., their scores) on a survey would stay the same over time is also a sign of reliability. There are three aspects of reliability, namely:

1. Equivalence
2. Stability and
3. Internal consistency (Miller, 2005).

Validity: Validity is also an important term related to tests and it is defined as the extent to which the instrument measures what it purports to measure. For example, in a test that is used to test students' listening ability, grammar should not be scored to preserve validity.

Types of Validity: There are many different types of validity:

1. Content validity
2. Face validity
3. Criterion-related validity(or predictive validity) construct validity
4. Factorial validity
5. Concurrent validity
6. Convergent validity and
7. Divergent validity (Hughes, 2003; Bachman, 2011)

Validity Criteria: to Review an EFL Exam

According to Fowler (2002), there are six guidelines to review the EFL exam for content validity criteria:

- (1) Clarity in wording
- (2) Relevance of the items
- (3) Use of Standard English
- (4) Absence of biased words and phrases
- (5) Formatting of items

(6) Clarity of the instructions

It should be kept in mind that reliability is necessary but not sufficient for validity. That is, for something to be valid it must be reliable but it must also measure what it is intended to measure (Miller, 2005).

Topic-031: Kinds of Tests

1. Proficiency test
2. Achievement tests
3. Diagnostics tests
4. Placement tests
5. Direct Vs. Indirect tests
6. Discreet Point Vs. Criterion referenced Testing
7. Objective Vs. Subjective testing
8. Communicative language testing

1. Proficiency Testing

Proficient means having sufficient command of the language for a particular purpose. Proficiency testing determines the performance of individual laboratories for specific tests or measurements and is used to monitor laboratories' continuing performance. Proficiency testing is also called inter laboratory comparison. The content of a proficiency test is based on a specification of what candidates have to be able to do in the language in order to be considered proficient. There are other proficiency tests which do not have an occupation or course of study in mind.

For instance, Cambridge examinations and the Oxford EFL examinations, the function of these tests is to show whether candidates have reached a certain standard with respect to certain specified abilities. Though there is no particular purpose in mind for the language, these general proficiency tests should have detailed specifications saying just what it is that successful candidates will have demonstrated that they can do. All users of a test can then judge whether the test is suitable for them, and can interpret test results.

2. Achievement Test

An achievement test is a test of developed skill or knowledge. The most common type of achievement test is a standardized test developed to measure skills and knowledge learned in a given grade level, usually through planned instruction, such as training or classroom instruction.

Achievement tests are directly related to language courses, their purpose being to establish how successful individual students, groups of students, or the courses themselves have been in achieving objectives.

Kinds of Achievement Tests

There are two kinds of achievement tests:

-
- Final achievement test
 - Progress achievement test

a. Final Achievement Tests

Final achievement tests are those administered at the end of a course of study. They may be written and administered by ministries of education, official examining boards, or by members of teaching institutions. The content of these tests must be related to the courses with which they are concerned, and should be based directly on a detailed course syllabus or on the books and other materials used.

b. Progress Achievement Tests

Progress achievement tests are intended to measure the progress that students are making. Since progress is towards the achievement of course objectives, these tests too should relate to objectives. One way of measuring progress would be repeatedly to administer final achievement tests, the increasing scores indicating the progress made.

3. Diagnostic Test

A diagnostic test is a test given at the beginning of a course which aims to discover exactly what the learners know or don't know already and where their strengths and weaknesses lie. Diagnostic tests are used:

- To identify students' strengths and weaknesses.
- They are intended primarily to ascertain what further teaching is necessary.

By this, teachers can be fairly confident of their ability to create tests that will tell them that a student is particularly weak in a certain subject.

4. Placement Tests

A placement test is a test used to determine which course a learner should attend. It would be used in a private language school to assign newly-arrived learners to a class at an appropriate level. Placement tests are intended to provide information which will help to place students at the stage of the teaching program most appropriate to their abilities. Typically they are used to assign students to classes at different levels. The placement tests which are most successful are those constructed for particular situations. They depend on the identification of the key features at different levels of teaching in the institution.

Four Constructions of Placement Tests

In addition, there are four test constructions:

- Direct versus indirect testing
- Discrete point versus integrative testing

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- Norm-referenced versus criterion-referenced testing
 - Objective versus subjective testing

a. Direct Testing

Testing is said to be direct when it requires the candidate to perform precisely the skill which we wish to measure. For example, if we want to know how well candidates can write compositions, we get them to write compositions. Direct testing is easier to carry out when it is intended to measure the productive skills.

Direct testing has a number of attractions:

- Provided that we are clear about just what abilities we want to assess
- In the case of productive skills, the assessment and interpretation of students' performance is also quite straightforward.
- Since practice for the test involves practice of the skills that we wish to foster, there is likely to be a helpful backwash effect.

b. Indirect Testing

Indirect testing attempts to measure the abilities which underlie the skills in which we are interested. The main appeal of indirect testing is that it seems to offer the possibility of testing a representative sample of a finite number of abilities which underlie a potentially indefinitely large number of manifestations of them.

The main problem with indirect tests is that the relationship between performance on them and performance of the skills in which we are usually more interested tends to be rather weak in strength and uncertain in nature. Example: Grammatical knowledge contributes to writing ability, then a grammar test may be used as an indirect test of writing.

c. Norm-referenced Test

Norm-referenced test is a test which is designed to give information about how the student performed on the test. It relates one candidate's performance to that of other candidates. We are not told directly what the student is capable of doing in the language.

d. Criterion-Referenced Test

Criterion-referenced test is a test which is designed to provide information about what the candidate can actually do in the language directly. The purpose of criterion-referenced tests is to classify people according to whether or not they are able to perform some task or set of tasks satisfactorily.

Criterion-referenced assessment compares students not against each other, but with success in performing a task. The results of a criterion-referenced test can be expressed by continuing the sentence "he/she is able to....." where the ability may refer to some small or larger integrative language task.

Criterion-referenced tests have two positive virtues:

- They set standards meaningful in terms of what people can do, which do not change with different groups of candidates.
- They motivate students to attain those standards.

e. Discrete Point Testing

Discrete point testing refers to the testing of one element at a time, item by item. This might involve, for example, a series of items each testing a particular grammatical structure. Discrete point tests will almost always be indirect.

f. Integrative Testing

Integrative testing requires the candidate to combine many language elements in the completion of a task. This might involve writing a composition, making notes while listening to a lecture, taking a dictation, or completing a cloze passage. Discrete point tests will almost always be indirect, while integrative tests will tend to be direct.

g. Objective & Subjective Testing

An objective test is a test that has right or wrong answers and so can be marked objectively. It can be compared with a subjective test.

A subjective test is evaluated by giving an opinion. It can be compared with an objective test, which has right or wrong answers and so can be marked objectively.

Objective vs. Subjective Testing

The distinction here is between methods of scoring, and nothing else. If no judgment is required on the part of the scorer, then the scoring is objective. Example is a multiple choice test, with the correct responses unambiguously identified, would be a case in point.

If judgment is called for, the scoring is said to be subjective. For example, the scoring of a composition is the type of subjective testing. In general, the less subjective the scoring, the greater agreement there will be between two different scorers.

Subjective tests are more challenging and expensive to prepare, administer and evaluate correctly, but they can be more valid.

5. Communicative Language Testing

Communicative language testing is intended to provide the teacher with information about the learners' ability to perform in the target language in certain context-specific tasks. It has to be recognized that given the constraints of time and practicality, only a small sample of the tester-test-takers' language can be collected. However realistic the tasks may be intended to be, the students' performance will inevitably reflect the fact the s/he was performing under tests condition.

Topic-032: Characteristics of a Good Test

- Objectivity

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- Basedness
 - Comprehensiveness
 - Validity
 - Reliability
 - Comparability
 - Practicability
 - Simplicity
 - Scorability

Objectivity

Objectivity represents the agreement of two or more raters or a test administrator concerning the score of a student. Not influenced by emotion or personal prejudice. Objectivity means that if the test is marked by different people, the score will be the same. In other words, marking process should not be affected by the marking person's personality.

A test is said to be objective if it is free from personal biases in interpreting its scope as well as in scoring the responses. Objectivity of a test can be increased by using more objective type test items and the answers are scored according to model answers provided. Lack of objectivity reduces test validity in the same way that lack reliability influence validity.

Objective Basedness

The test should be based on pre-determined objectives. The test setter should have definite idea about the objective behind each item.

Comprehensiveness

A test is said to have comprehensiveness if it encompasses all aspects of a particular subject of study. The test should cover the whole syllabus. A good test should include items from different areas of material assigned for the test. e.g. (dialogue - composition - comprehension - grammar - vocabulary - orthography - dictation - handwriting). Due importance should be given all the relevant learning materials. Test should be cover all the anticipated objectives.

Validity

A test is said to be valid if it measures what it intends to measure and nothing else. Validity is a more test-dependent concept but reliability is a purely statistical parameter.

Four Types of Validity

- Operational Validity
- Predictive Validity
- Content Validity
- Construct Validity

a. Operational Validity

A test will have operational validity if the tasks required by the test are sufficient to evaluate the definite activities or qualities.

b. Predictive Validity

A test has predictive validity if scores on it predict future performance.

c. Content Validity

If the items in the test constitute a representative sample of the total course content to be tested, the test can be said to have content validity.

d. Construct Validity

Construct validity involves explaining the test scores psychologically. A test is interpreted in terms of numerous research findings.

Reliability

Reliability of a test refers to the degree of consistency with which it measures what it intended to measure. A test is considered reliable if it is taken again by the same students under the same circumstances and the score average is almost the constant, taking into consideration that the time between the test and the retest is of reasonable length.

A test may be reliable but need not be valid. This is because it may yield consistent scores, but these scores need not be representing what exactly we want to measure. A test with high validity has to be reliable also. (the scores will be consistent in both cases). Valid test is also a reliable test, but a reliable test may not be a valid one.

Factors Influencing Reliability: To have a reliability estimate, one or two sets of scores should be obtained from the same group of testees. Thus, two factors contribute to test reliability:

- The testee and
- The test itself

Different Method for Determining Reliability

a. Test-retest Method:

A test is administered to the same group with short interval. The scores are tabulated and correlation is calculated. The higher the correlation, the more the reliability will be.

b. Split-half Method

The scores of the odd and even items are taken and the correlation between the two sets of scores determined.

c. Parallel form Method

Reliability is determined using two equivalent forms of the same test content. These prepared tests are administered to the same group one after the other. The test forms should be identical with respect to the number of items, content, difficult level. The correlation between the two sets of

scores is obtained by the group in the two tests. If higher the correlation, the more the reliability will be.

d. Discriminating Power

Discriminating power of the test is its power to discriminate between the upper and lower groups who took the test. The test should contain different difficulty level of questions.

Practicability

Practicability refers to the ease of administration and scoring of a test. **Practicability of the test depends up on:**

1. Administrative ease
2. Scoring ease
3. Interpretative ease
4. Economy

Comparability

A test possesses comparability when scores resulting from its use can be interpreted in terms of a common base that has a natural or accepted meaning. There are two methods for establishing comparability:

- Availability of equivalent (parallel) form of test
- Availability of adequate norms

Simplicity

A test is said to be simple if it is easy to understand along with the instructions and other details. **Simplicity means that the test should be written in a clear, correct and simple language**, it is important to keep the method of testing as simple as possible while still testing the skill you intend to test. (Avoid ambiguous questions and ambiguous instructions).

Scorability

Scorability means that the test should be easy to score, directions for scoring is clear, provide the answer sheet and the answer key. Scorability also means that each item in the test has its own mark related to the distribution of marks given by The Ministry of Education.

Topic-033: Testing Communication Skills

The testing of communication skills involve the:

1. Reading tests
2. Writing tests
3. Speaking tests
4. Listening tests

1. Reading Test

Texts for reading tests should be authentic and tests must be taken from books, journals, magazines and newspapers. Reading tests involves the students' ability to process text, understand its meaning, and to integrate with what the reader already knows.

1. Writing Test

The written test is a comprehensive exam that assesses the examinee's knowledge of basic concepts based on criterion-referenced testing. Examinees will be measured against the skill and knowledge represented by each test item.

2. Speaking Test

A speaking or oral test is defined as a test in which a person is encouraged to speak, and then assessed on the basis of that speech. The examiner will mark the speaking test of English language on the basis of four things:

- a. Fluency and coherence
- b. Lexical resource
- c. Grammatical range and accuracy
- d. Pronunciation

3. Listening Tests

Testing listening involves a variety of skills. At the lowest level, it involves discrimination among sounds, discrimination among intonation and stress patterns, and comprehension of short and long listening texts.

Topic-034: Testing Language Sub-skills

1. Vocabulary tests
2. Grammar tests
3. Pronunciation tests
4. Using Web for language testing

1. Vocabulary Test

A test for knowledge (as of meaning or use) of a selected list of words that is often used as part of an intelligence test is known as vocabulary test.

2. Grammar Tests

This test contains grammar and vocabulary questions and the test result will help the student to choose a level to practice at.

3. Pronunciation Tests

Pronunciation is the way in which a word or a language is spoken. The purpose of testing pronunciation is not only to evaluate knowledge and award grades, but also, and probably more importantly, to motivate students to be sensitive to this aspect of English.

The ideal way of testing pronunciation is to actually listen to the learner. But since this is not always possible or suitable, the alternatives can be used for testing segments and word stress.

Using Web for Language Teaching

The use of Information and Communication Technologies is widespread in the field of education nowadays. In the case of foreign language teaching, a wide range of digital resources is available on the Internet, including an increasing number of websites.

EGV522 – Bitcoin by Maha Malin